

INDIAN TRADITIONS, CULTURE AND SOCIETY

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied heritage of languages, religions, arts, cuisines, philosophies and customs. India's culture is influenced by its ancient history, colonial legacy, regional diversity and contemporary globalization.
- Some of the salient features of Indian traditions, culture and society are:
 - **Arts and Language:** India has a long and distinguished tradition of literature, music, dance, theatre, architecture, painting, sculpture and other forms of artistic expression. India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects. The ancient Indian classical language, Sanskrit, was one of the earliest Indo-European languages to be developed and is the source of many modern Indian languages.
 - **Philosophy and Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major world religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism and Sikhism. India also has a significant population of Muslims, Christians, Sikhs, Parsis, Jews and other faiths. Indian philosophy encompasses a wide range of schools and systems of thought, such as Vedanta, Yoga, Nyaya, Mimamsa, Sankhya, Advaita, etc. Indian philosophy has influenced many aspects of Indian culture, such as ethics, aesthetics, logic, metaphysics, etc.
 - **Food and Drink:** The cuisine of India varies considerably across its various regions and ethnic communities. Indian food is known for its use of spices, herbs, grains, pulses, dairy products, fruits and vegetables. Some of the popular dishes of Indian cuisine are biryani, curry, dal, roti, dosa, idli, samosa, chaat, etc. Indian food also reflects the religious and cultural diversity of the country, such as vegetarianism, halal, kosher, etc. Indian drinks include tea, coffee, lassi, sherbet, etc.
 - **Customs and Traditions:** India has a rich and varied heritage of customs and traditions that are practiced by different communities and regions. Some of the common customs and traditions of India are:
 - * Greeting with a namaste, which is a gesture of folding the palms together and bowing slightly. It is a sign of respect and reverence.
 - * Wearing traditional attire, such as saree, kurta, dhoti, salwar kameez, etc. These clothes are made of various fabrics, colors and

designs and reflect the regional and cultural diversity of India.

- * Celebrating festivals, such as Diwali, Holi, Eid, Christmas, etc. These festivals are occasions of joy, gratitude, devotion, forgiveness, etc. They are marked by rituals, prayers, lights, colors, sweets, gifts, etc.
- * Respecting elders, teachers, guests and strangers. Indians value the concept of atithi devo bhava, which means “the guest is equivalent to God”. Indians also show respect to elders and teachers by touching their feet, offering them seats, etc.
- * Following family and social norms, such as joint family system, arranged marriages, caste system, etc. These norms are based on the values of loyalty, duty, honor, etc. They also vary across regions and communities and are changing with time.

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

- Society, state and polity are interrelated concepts that help us understand the social and political dynamics of a country.
- Society refers to the network of human relationships, interactions and institutions that shape the collective life of a group of people.
- State refers to the political organization that exercises sovereign authority over a defined territory and population.
- Polity refers to the system of governance, laws, norms and values that regulate the state and society.
- India is a diverse and complex society with multiple religions, languages, cultures, castes, ethnicities and regions.
- India is also a democratic and federal state with a parliamentary system of government, a written constitution and a multiparty system.
- India’s polity is influenced by its colonial history, nationalist movement, social movements, regional aspirations, economic development and global integration.
- India’s society, state and polity face various challenges and opportunities in the 21st century, such as poverty, inequality, corruption, communalism, secularism, human rights, social justice, development, environment, security and diplomacy.

State in Ancient India

- The state in ancient India was a social organization with political power that ensured peace, order and happiness.
- There were different types of states in ancient India, such as monarchy, republic and oligarchy.
- Monarchy was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India, where the king was the supreme authority and inherited his position from his ancestors.
- Republic was a type of state in ancient India where the people elected

their rulers or representatives from among themselves. There were several republics in ancient India, such as the Shakyas, the Koliyas, the Mallas and the Vrijis.

- Oligarchy was a type of state in ancient India where a few powerful people or families controlled the state and its resources. An example of an oligarchy was the Nanda dynasty that ruled over Magadha.
- There were different theories of origin of state in ancient India, such as the social contract theory, the divine origin theory and the organic theory.
- The social contract theory held that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among the people to surrender some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a government in exchange for protection and welfare.
- The divine origin theory held that the state was created by God or gods and the ruler was the representative or the incarnation of the divine will.
- The organic theory held that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society and the ruler was the head of the social organism.
- The earliest state in ancient India was the Indus Valley Civilization, also known as the Harappan Civilization, that flourished from 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE in present-day Pakistan and northwest India .
- The Indus Valley Civilization was remarkable for its urban planning, standardized weights and measures, seal carving, metallurgy, trade and writing system.
- The Indus Valley Civilization declined due to various factors, such as environmental changes, natural disasters, invasions and internal conflicts.

Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of state in India is a subject of debate among scholars of political science and history. There are different theories that attempt to explain how the state emerged and evolved in ancient India. Some of the prominent theories are:

- **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among individuals who gave up some of their natural rights and freedoms in exchange for security and order. The state was seen as a human creation that could be changed or abolished by the consent of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Mahabharata, the Arthashastra and the Manusmriti .
- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory asserts that the state was established by the will of God or gods who chose a king or a dynasty to rule over the people. The king was considered as the representative or the incarnation of the divine power and had the right to rule by virtue of his birth or consecration. The state was seen as a sacred institution that could not be questioned or challenged by the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Vedas, the Ramayana and the Puranas .

- **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social and economic development of human society. The state was seen as a living organism that grew and changed according to the needs and aspirations of the people. The state was not a product of any contract or divine intervention, but a result of the historical and cultural evolution of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Upanishads, the Dharmashastras and the Buddhist scriptures .

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution, rather than a divine or contractual creation.
- The theory is based on the assumption that human society has passed through various stages of development, from simple and primitive forms to complex and civilized ones, and that the state emerged as a result of certain factors and conditions that influenced the social organization and political consciousness of people.
- The theory is supported by various sources of evidence, such as anthropology, archaeology, history, sociology, and political science, that show the diversity and continuity of human cultures and institutions over time and space.
- The theory is also considered as more scientific and realistic than other theories of origin of state, such as the Divine Right Theory, the Force Theory, the Social Contract Theory, and the Patriarchal and Matriarchal Theories, that rely on myths, assumptions, or speculations.
- The theory identifies several factors that contributed to the evolution of the state, such as kinship, religion, war, migration, economic activities, and political consciousness. These factors are explained as follows:
 - Kinship: Kinship was the basis of the earliest form of social organization, where people lived in small groups or clans, related by blood or marriage, and shared common customs, beliefs, and interests. These groups were governed by elders or chiefs, who exercised authority and settled disputes among the members. As the population increased and the groups expanded, kinship ties became weaker and more distant, and new forms of association and cooperation emerged, such as tribes, confederations, and leagues, that paved the way for the formation of the state.
 - Religion: Religion was another factor that influenced the evolution of the state, as it provided a common bond and a source of unity and identity for the people. Religion also gave legitimacy and sanctity to the rulers and the laws, and helped to maintain social order and

harmony. Religion also inspired people to undertake wars, migrations, and conquests, that led to the expansion and consolidation of the state.

- War: War was a major factor that accelerated the evolution of the state, as it created the need for defense, security, and organization among the people. War also stimulated the development of technology, skills, and resources, that enhanced the power and prestige of the state. War also resulted in the subjugation, assimilation, or elimination of weaker or rival groups, that increased the territory and population of the state.
- Migration: Migration was another factor that influenced the evolution of the state, as it caused the movement and interaction of people across different regions and cultures. Migration also brought about the diffusion and exchange of ideas, values, and practices, that enriched and diversified the state. Migration also created the opportunities and challenges for the state to adapt and adjust to new environments and situations.
- Economic activities: Economic activities were also a factor that contributed to the evolution of the state, as they determined the mode and level of production, distribution, and consumption of goods and services among the people. Economic activities also affected the division of labor, the specialization of functions, and the accumulation of wealth, that increased the complexity and efficiency of the state. Economic activities also generated the conflicts and competitions among the people, that required the regulation and resolution of the state.
- Political consciousness: Political consciousness was the final and most important factor that led to the evolution of the state, as it reflected the awareness and aspiration of the people to have a stable, orderly, and just society. Political consciousness also involved the recognition and acceptance of the authority and sovereignty of the state, and the participation and representation of the people in the affairs and decisions of the state. Political consciousness also implied the development and improvement of the institutions, laws, and policies of the state, that ensured the welfare and progress of the state.

Force Theory of origin of State

- Force Theory of origin of State is a theory that proposes that the state emerged from the use of force by one person or a small group of people over a larger population in a certain territory.
- According to this theory, the state is a result of conquest, war, violence, and coercion, and the ruler or the ruling class exercises authority over the subjects by force.
- Some examples of states that are said to have originated from force theory are the ancient empires of Egypt, Babylon, Assyria, Persia, Rome, and China, as well as some modern states such as Nazi Germany, Soviet Union,

and North Korea.

- Some of the criticisms of force theory are that it ignores the role of consent, cooperation, and social contract in the formation of the state, and that it does not explain the diversity and complexity of the political systems and cultures in different regions and times.

Mystical Theory of origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is also known as the **divine origin theory** or the **theory of divine right of kings**.
- The exponents of this theory believe that the state did not come into being by any effort of man, but it is **created by God** .
- The king who rules over the state is an **agent of God** on earth, and has absolute authority and legitimacy .
- The people have no right to question, resist, or overthrow the king, as he is accountable only to God .
- The theory was popular in ancient and medieval times, and was supported by various religious and political thinkers, such as Plato, Aristotle, Augustine, Aquinas, Filmer, Bossuet, and James I of England .
- The theory was challenged by the rise of democracy, human rights, and secularism, and was rejected by modern political thinkers, such as Locke, Rousseau, Montesquieu, and Kant .
- The theory is based on **faith and tradition**, rather than reason and evidence, and is considered **unscientific and irrational** by contemporary scholars .
- The theory is also criticized for **justifying tyranny and oppression**, and for ignoring the social and historical factors that shape the state .

Contract Theory of origin of State

- The contract theory of origin of state is a theory that explains how the state or the society came into being by a voluntary agreement or contract among individuals or groups of individuals.
- The contract theory assumes that there was a state of nature before the formation of the state, where people lived in a condition of freedom, equality and independence, but also faced the problems of insecurity, violence and disorder.
- The contract theory also assumes that people have some natural rights that are inherent and inalienable, such as the right to life, liberty and property, and that the purpose of the state is to protect and secure these rights.
- The contract theory has been developed and elaborated by various thinkers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, Jean-Jacques Rousseau and Immanuel Kant, who have given different versions and interpretations of the social contract.
- The contract theory has been influential in the history of political thought

and practice, as it has provided a rational and moral justification for the authority and legitimacy of the state, as well as the rights and duties of the citizens.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

- State formation in ancient India is linked with the growth and spread of agriculture, trade, industry and urbanisation along the river valleys.
- The first states (Janapadas) emerged in the Indo-Gangetic plains around the 6th century BCE, as a result of agricultural surplus, population growth, social stratification and political centralisation .
- The Janapadas were either monarchies or republics, with varying degrees of autonomy and power. Some of the prominent Janapadas were Kuru, Panchala, Kosala, Magadha, Vajji, Avanti, Gandhara, Kamboja, etc.
- The Janapadas were often engaged in wars and alliances with each other, leading to the rise and fall of different dynasties and kingdoms. The most powerful and influential kingdom was Magadha, which expanded its territory and influence under the Nanda, Maurya, Sunga, Kanva and Gupta dynasties from the 4th century BCE to the 6th century CE.
- The Mauryan Empire (321-185 BCE) was the first pan-Indian empire, which unified most of the subcontinent under a centralised administration and a common culture. The Mauryan Empire reached its zenith under Ashoka, who promoted Buddhism and a policy of non-violence.
- The post-Mauryan period (185 BCE-320 CE) witnessed the fragmentation of the empire into various regional kingdoms, such as the Shunga, Satavahana, Kushan, Indo-Greek, Indo-Scythian, Indo-Parthian, etc. These kingdoms were culturally diverse and had varying degrees of contact and trade with the outside world, especially Central Asia, West Asia and the Mediterranean.
- The Gupta Empire (320-550 CE) was the second pan-Indian empire, which restored political unity and cultural harmony in the subcontinent. The Gupta Empire is considered the golden age of Indian history, as it witnessed remarkable achievements in art, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, etc.
- The post-Gupta period (550-1200 CE) saw the decline of the empire and the emergence of various regional kingdoms, such as the Vakataka, Pallava, Chalukya, Rashtrakuta, Pala, Pratihara, Chola, etc. These kingdoms were often involved in conflicts and alliances with each other, as well as with foreign invaders, such as the Huns, Arabs, Turks, Afghans, etc.
- The Delhi Sultanate (1206-1526 CE) was the first Islamic empire in India, which established its capital in Delhi and ruled over most of northern and central India. The Delhi Sultanate faced several challenges from the Mongols, the Rajputs, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Bahmani Sultanate, etc. The Delhi Sultanate also contributed to the cultural synthesis and diversity of India, as it introduced Persian, Arabic and Turkish elements into the Indian society.

- The Mughal Empire (1526-1857 CE) was the third and last pan-Indian empire, which was founded by Babur, a descendant of Timur and Genghis Khan. The Mughal Empire reached its peak under Akbar, who consolidated his power and expanded his territory through a policy of religious tolerance and cultural integration. The Mughal Empire also patronised art, architecture, literature, music, painting, etc.
- The decline of the Mughal Empire began in the 18th century, due to internal rebellions, external invasions, regional autonomy and corruption. The British East India Company gradually took advantage of the political vacuum and established its dominance over India through a series of wars, treaties and alliances. The British Raj (1858-1947 CE) was the final stage of state formation in India, which ended with the independence and partition of India in 1947.

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Kingship in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a king who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- The meaning and significance of kingship changed dramatically between the Vedic and Later Vedic period, and underwent further development under the times of the Jain and Buddhist rulers.
- The role of a king in ancient India was emphasized vaguely in Vedic literature. It was considered that kingship was in most cases not elective. Ancient Indians believed that kingship arose out of military requirement.
- The king was expected to uphold the dharma (righteousness), protect the people and the land, maintain justice and order, and perform sacrifices and rituals.
- The king was also seen as a representative of the gods, and sometimes as an incarnation of a god. The king was often associated with the sun, the fire, and the thunderbolt.
- The king was assisted by various officials, such as ministers, priests, generals, judges, and spies. The king also had a council of elders or nobles, who advised him on important matters.
- The king was subject to the law, which was made by the society and not him. The community as a whole was given greater importance than the king. The king could be dethroned or killed if he violated the law or oppressed the people.
- The king was also expected to follow the code of conduct (raja dharma) prescribed by the scriptures and the tradition. The king had to be virtuous, generous, brave, wise, and compassionate.
- The king was the owner of all the land in his territory, and he granted land to his loyal subjects, such as nobles, warriors, priests, and peasants. The king also collected taxes from the people, and used them for the welfare of the state.
- The king was the supreme commander of the army, and he led his troops

in wars and conquests. The king also made alliances and treaties with other kings, and maintained diplomatic relations with foreign powers.

- The king was the patron of arts, sciences, and culture. The king supported the poets, musicians, artists, scholars, and teachers, and encouraged the development of literature, architecture, astronomy, medicine, and other fields of knowledge.
- The king was the source of honor and glory for his people, and he was praised and celebrated in various forms of expression, such as hymns, epics, legends, and inscriptions.
- The king was also the subject of criticism and challenge, and he had to face various enemies and rivals, both internal and external. The king had to deal with rebellions, invasions, conspiracies, and usurpations.
- The king was the center of the state, and his personality and actions had a great impact on the history and destiny of his people. The king was remembered and revered by his successors and descendants, and sometimes worshipped as a god.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers was an important institution of governance in ancient India. It was composed of ministers (mantrins) who advised and assisted the king in various matters of administration, policy, and diplomacy.
- The council of ministers was also known as mantri-parishad, mantri-mandala, or mantri-gana in different sources. The term mantri-parishad means “the assembly of ministers” and implies a collective and deliberative body. The term mantri-mandala means “the circle of ministers” and suggests a close and intimate group. The term mantri-gana means “the group of ministers” and indicates a diverse and heterogeneous composition.
- The council of ministers was not a fixed or permanent entity, but varied in size, structure, and function according to the needs and preferences of the king and the circumstances of the time. The number of ministers could range from a few to several, depending on the extent and complexity of the kingdom. The ministers could be appointed, dismissed, or replaced by the king at his discretion, based on their qualifications, loyalty, and performance. The ministers could also resign or retire from their posts voluntarily or due to old age, illness, or death.
- The council of ministers had different types and levels of ministers, depending on their rank, role, and responsibility. The most prominent and powerful minister was the prime minister (mahamantri or mantrimukhya), who was the leader of the council, the chief confidant of the king, and the coordinator of the administration. He was usually the first among equals and had the authority to preside over the meetings of the council in the absence of the king. He was also the main spokesperson of the king and the representative of the kingdom in foreign affairs. He was expected to

be well-versed in the scriptures, the sciences, and the arts, and to possess qualities such as intelligence, wisdom, courage, integrity, and loyalty.

- The other ministers had different portfolios and functions, such as finance, defense, justice, agriculture, trade, education, religion, etc. They were expected to be experts in their respective fields and to advise the king on the relevant matters. They were also responsible for the implementation and supervision of the policies and programs of the king and the council. They were required to be honest, diligent, and efficient in their duties and to report to the king and the council regularly.
- The council of ministers was not a mere advisory body, but had a significant role and influence in the decision-making process of the king and the kingdom. The council of ministers could initiate, propose, discuss, and deliberate on various issues and matters of public interest and welfare. The council of ministers could also review, modify, approve, or reject the proposals and suggestions of the king or other officials. The council of ministers could also act as a check and balance on the power and authority of the king and prevent him from becoming arbitrary, tyrannical, or corrupt. The council of ministers could also act as a mediator and arbitrator in case of disputes or conflicts among the king, the officials, the subjects, or the neighboring states.
- The council of ministers was not a static or rigid institution, but evolved and adapted to the changing political, social, and economic conditions of ancient India. The council of ministers was influenced by various factors, such as the nature and personality of the king, the character and competence of the ministers, the size and diversity of the kingdom, the challenges and opportunities of the times, the traditions and customs of the people, and the ideals and values of the culture. The council of ministers was also influenced by the models and examples of other states and civilizations, such as the Mauryas, the Sungas, the Sakas, the Maukharis, etc.
- The council of ministers was a remarkable institution of ancient India that reflected the principles and practices of democracy, republicanism, and constitutionalism. The council of ministers was a manifestation of the collective wisdom, collective will, and collective action of the king and the people. The council of ministers was a symbol of the harmony, balance, and cooperation between the monarchy and the aristocracy, the authority and the accountability, the individual and the society, and the state and the dharma. The council of ministers was a testimony of the political acumen, administrative skill, and ethical vision of the ancient Indians.

Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India was an extremely well-organized one that evolved over time from the Indus Valley civilization to the Gupta period.
- The earliest reference to administration can be traced to the Indus Valley civilization, where government in Mohenjodaro and Harappa was systematic and based on urban planning, trade, taxation and public works.

- The Vedic period saw the emergence of the concept of the state as a ‘Saptanghi’ or seven-limbed entity, consisting of the king, the ministers, the territory, the fort, the treasury, the army and the allies. The king was the supreme authority, but he was assisted by a council of elders or sabha and an assembly of people or samiti. The king also performed religious and ceremonial duties and was expected to uphold the dharma or moral order.
- The Mauryan period witnessed the establishment of the first imperial administration in India under Chandragupta Maurya and his successors, especially Ashoka. The empire was divided into provinces and districts, each headed by a governor or a viceroy. The central administration consisted of various departments and officials, such as the prime minister, the chief justice, the treasurer, the spy master, the superintendent of trade, the superintendent of agriculture, etc. The administration was efficient, bureaucratic and based on the principles of the Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft attributed to Kautilya.
- The post-Mauryan period saw the rise and fall of various regional kingdoms, such as the Sungas, the Kushanas, the Satavahanas, the Guptas, etc. The administration of these kingdoms was largely influenced by the Mauryan model, but with some variations and adaptations. The kings were often assisted by a council of ministers or a feudal nobility. The provinces and districts were governed by local chiefs or officials, who sometimes enjoyed a high degree of autonomy. The administration was also influenced by the religious and cultural diversity of the regions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Hinduism, etc.
- The administration in ancient India was not only political, but also social, economic and cultural. It involved the regulation of trade, commerce, taxation, agriculture, irrigation, public works, education, law, justice, welfare, etc. The administration also reflected the values and ideals of the ancient Indian society, such as dharma, karma, varna, ashrama, etc.
- The administration in ancient India was also marked by some achievements and challenges, such as the spread of culture, art, literature, science, technology, etc., the maintenance of peace, order and security, the protection of the environment and wildlife, the promotion of human rights and welfare, etc., as well as the problems of corruption, oppression, invasion, rebellion, etc.
- The administration in ancient India was a complex and dynamic phenomenon that changed and developed over time, depending on the historical, geographical, political, social, economic and cultural factors. It was also a source of inspiration and learning for the later periods of Indian history and the world at large.

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich and diverse tradition of political ideas and institutions, which influenced the development of its society and culture.

- Some of the major features of political ideas in ancient India are:
 - Monarchy: The most common form of government in ancient India was monarchy, where a king or a queen ruled over a territory and its people. The king was considered to be the representative of God and the protector of dharma (righteousness). The king was advised by a council of ministers, priests, and elders, and was bound by the laws of the state and the scriptures. The king was also expected to perform various rituals and sacrifices to ensure the prosperity and welfare of his subjects. Some of the famous monarchs in ancient India were Chandragupta Maurya, Ashoka, Harshavardhana, and Samudragupta.
 - Democratic Values: Despite the prevalence of monarchy, ancient India also witnessed the emergence of democratic values and practices in some regions and periods. There were various forms of assemblies and councils, such as sabha, samiti, vidatha, and gana, where people participated in decision-making and governance. These assemblies were based on the principles of equality, freedom, and consent of the governed. Some of the texts that reflect the democratic ideals of ancient India are the Rig Veda, the Buddhist Pali canon, and the Arthashastra. Some of the examples of democratic polities in ancient India are the Vajji confederation, the Mallas, the Shakyas, and the Licchavis.
 - Decentralization: Another feature of political ideas in ancient India was the decentralization of power and authority. The state was not a monolithic entity, but a complex network of various units and levels of administration. The state was divided into provinces, districts, towns, villages, and hamlets, each with its own functionaries and institutions. The local units enjoyed a considerable degree of autonomy and self-government, and were responsible for maintaining law and order, collecting taxes, and providing public services. The state also recognized the existence and rights of various groups and associations, such as castes, guilds, tribes, and religious sects, and allowed them to manage their own affairs.
 - Dharma: One of the most important concepts in political ideas in ancient India was dharma, which can be loosely translated as duty, law, morality, or justice. Dharma was the guiding principle for both the ruler and the ruled, and was derived from the divine order of the cosmos. Dharma was not a fixed or rigid code, but a dynamic and context-specific norm that varied according to time, place, and circumstance. Dharma was also not imposed by external authority, but was discovered and realized by the individual through reason, conscience, and intuition. Dharma was the basis of social harmony, political stability, and human welfare in ancient India.
 - Spies and Armies: Another aspect of political ideas in ancient India was the use of spies and armies for the protection and expansion of the

state. The state employed a sophisticated system of espionage and intelligence, which involved the use of secret agents, informers, couriers, and diplomats. The spies were trained in various skills and arts, such as disguise, deception, seduction, and sabotage. The spies were also responsible for collecting information, spreading propaganda, influencing public opinion, and creating dissension among the enemies. The state also maintained a large and well-organized army, which consisted of four branches: infantry, cavalry, chariots, and elephants. The army was equipped with various weapons and strategies, such as bows, arrows, swords, spears, shields, catapults, and fortifications. The army was also guided by the principles of dharma and ethics, and was expected to follow the rules of war and respect the rights of the non-combatants.

- Welfare State: Another feature of political ideas in ancient India was the concept of welfare state, which meant that the state was responsible for the well-being and happiness of its people. The state provided various public services and amenities, such as roads, bridges, irrigation, education, health, justice, and charity. The state also undertook various measures to promote the economic and social development of its people, such as encouraging trade, commerce, agriculture, industry, and art. The state also protected the rights and interests of the weak and the vulnerable, such as the poor, the women, the children, the elderly, and the animals. The state also respected the diversity and pluralism of its people, and allowed them

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The concept of social welfare in ancient India was based on the idea of **duty** as opposed to **rights**. The term **dharma** denoted the moral and ethical obligations of individuals and groups towards the common good of the society.
- The king, as the head of the state, was expected to uphold the **rajadharma**, which was the duty of protecting and promoting the welfare of the people. The king was guided by the principles of justice, benevolence, and compassion.
- The ancient Indian state provided various facilities and services for the welfare of the people, such as public works, irrigation, education, health care, charity, and relief. The state also ensured the protection of the weak and the needy, such as women, children, the elderly, the disabled, and the poor .
- The ancient Indian society was also organized into various groups and associations, such as clans, tribes, villages, guilds, and councils. These groups had their own rules and regulations, and also participated in the governance and administration of the society. They also contributed to the social welfare by providing mutual support, cooperation, and solidarity among their members .

- The ancient Indian society was also influenced by various religious and philosophical traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and others. These traditions emphasized the values of non-violence, compassion, charity, and service to others. They also encouraged the practice of various rituals, ceremonies, and amulets, which were believed to ensure the welfare of the society .

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

- The Seven Limbs of the State (Saptanga) is a political theory formulated by Kautilya in his treatise Arthashastra .
- It describes the seven essential elements or organs of a state that are necessary for its functioning and stability .
- The seven limbs are:
 - King: The supreme authority and ruler of the state, who is responsible for maintaining peace, justice and order .
 - Amatya: The ministers or bureaucrats who assist the king in administration, policy-making and governance .
 - Janapada: The territory or land of the state, which provides resources, population and security .
 - Durga: The fort or capital of the state, which serves as the center of power, defense and culture .
 - Kosa: The treasury or wealth of the state, which enables the state to finance its activities, projects and welfare .
 - Danda: The coercive authority or military force of the state, which protects the state from external and internal threats and enforces the law .
 - Mitra: The ally or friend of the state, who supports the state in times of need and shares common interests .
- According to Kautilya, the state should balance and harmonize these seven limbs to achieve its goals and prosperity .

Society in Ancient India

- Ancient India was a diverse and complex society that spanned from the late Bronze Age to the early Iron Age, and from the Indus Valley to the Gangetic Plain.
- The ancient Indian society was based on the concept of **varna**, which was a four-fold classification of people into four categories: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and laborers).
- The ancient Indian society was also divided into four stages of life, or **ashrams**, which were: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (retired), and Sannyasa (renunciant).
- The ancient Indian society was influenced by various religions and philosophies, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and others, which shaped

the values, beliefs, and practices of the people.

- The ancient Indian society was marked by remarkable achievements in various fields, such as mathematics, astronomy, medicine, literature, art, architecture, and urban planning. Some of the inventions and innovations of the ancient Indians include the decimal system, zero, the concept of infinity, plastic surgery, yoga, chess, and the flush toilet.
- The ancient Indian society was also characterized by social problems and challenges, such as caste discrimination, gender inequality, poverty, violence, and foreign invasions. The ancient Indians faced various political and cultural changes, such as the rise and fall of empires, the emergence of regional kingdoms, and the interaction with other civilizations.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ, IAST: Puruṣārtha) literally means “object (ive) of men” or “human pursuit”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism, and refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. The four puruṣārthas are Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values) and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values).
- The concept of purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics. Like four classes in the society and four stages in the life of an individual, the ancient Indian seers conceived of four aims or purposes of a man- the purusārtha. These are not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them.
- The concept of purusārtha also implies a balanced and harmonious life, where one does not neglect any of the four goals, but pursues them in accordance with one’s nature, stage and duty. The purusārthas are also interrelated and interdependent, and one cannot be achieved without the others.
- The concept of purusārtha reflects the ancient Indian worldview, where the human life is seen as a journey of self-realization and fulfillment, and where the individual and the society are mutually supportive and responsible.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

- The varnāshrama system was a concept of social and moral order in ancient Hindu society, based on the division of people into four varnas (classes) and four ashramas (stages of life).
- The four varnas were:
 - Brahman: the class of priests, teachers and scholars, who performed rituals and preserved the sacred texts.
 - Kshatriya: the class of kings, warriors and nobles, who protected the society and maintained law and order.
 - Vaishya: the class of traders, merchants and artisans, who engaged in commerce and production.

- Sudra: the class of servants, laborers and peasants, who served the other three classes.
- The four ashramas were:
 - Brahmacharya: the stage of studentship, where one learned the scriptures and the duties of one's varna under a guru (teacher).
 - Grihastha: the stage of householdership, where one married, raised a family and performed the social and economic obligations of one's varna.
 - Vanaprastha: the stage of forest-dwelling, where one retired from worldly affairs and pursued spiritual goals in solitude or with one's spouse.
 - Sannyasa: the stage of renunciation, where one gave up all attachments and sought liberation from the cycle of birth and death.
- The varnāshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the harmonious functioning of the society and the individual, by assigning different roles and responsibilities according to one's aptitude and stage of life.
- The varnāshrama system was also influenced by the concept of dharma, which means the moral law or duty that governs one's actions and behavior. Dharma varied according to one's varna and ashrama, and was considered the highest goal of human life.
- The varnāshrama system was not rigid or fixed, but allowed for some mobility and flexibility, depending on one's karma (the law of cause and effect) and guna (the innate qualities of one's nature). Some people could change their varna or ashrama, or transcend the system altogether, by following the path of bhakti (devotion) or jnana (knowledge).
- The varnāshrama system was not a caste system, but a system of social classification that was based on one's occupation and duty, not on one's birth or lineage. However, over time, the system became corrupted and distorted by the influence of power, prejudice and privilege, and resulted in the formation of rigid and hierarchical castes that discriminated and oppressed people based on their birth and status.

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras. The Asrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism.
- The four āshramas are:
 - Brahmacharya (student): This stage lasts from childhood until the completion of one's education. It is marked by chastity, devotion, and obedience to one's teacher .
 - Gṛhastha (householder): This stage begins with marriage and involves the fulfillment of one's duties as a spouse, parent, and member of society. It is the stage of worldly pursuits and enjoyment .
 - Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller): This stage starts when one's children are grown up and independent. It is the stage of grad-

- ual withdrawal from worldly attachments and responsibilities. It involves the pursuit of spiritual knowledge and self-realization .
- Sannyasa (renunciate): This stage is the final and highest stage of life. It is marked by complete renunciation of worldly desires and possessions. It is the stage of detachment, liberation, and peace .
- The āshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the ethical and spiritual development of an individual according to one's age, abilities, and interests. It was also meant to balance the social and personal needs of a person .

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was a sacred institution that brought together the two halves of life, man and woman, to form a complete and organic whole.
- Marriage was not based on romantic love, but on the compatibility of the partners in terms of caste, class, family, and horoscope.
- Marriage was a lifelong bond that could not be dissolved by divorce or widowhood.
- Marriage was a social and religious duty that conferred various rights and obligations on the spouses, such as mutual support, fidelity, progeny, and inheritance.
- Marriage was also a means of establishing kinship ties and alliances between different families and clans.
- Marriage was regulated by various customs and laws that varied according to the region, time, and type of marriage.
- There were eight types of marriages recognized by the ancient Hindu scriptures, ranging from the most righteous (Brahma) to the most sinful (Paishacha).
- The most common type of marriage was the arranged marriage, where the parents or elders of the bride and groom negotiated the terms and fixed the date of the wedding.
- The wedding ceremony was a elaborate and auspicious affair that involved various rituals, such as the exchange of garlands, the tying of the sacred thread, the circumambulation of the fire, and the taking of the seven vows.
- The bride and groom were expected to follow certain rules of conduct and etiquette before, during, and after the wedding, such as fasting, abstaining from sexual intercourse, and honoring the elders.
- The married couple had to perform various duties and responsibilities towards each other, their families, and their society, such as maintaining the household, bearing and raising children, performing religious rites, and upholding the moral and social order.
- The status and role of women in ancient India varied according to the period, region, and class, but generally they were subordinate and dependent on their husbands.
- Women had limited rights and freedoms in matters of education, property, divorce, and remarriage.

- Women were expected to be loyal, obedient, virtuous, and chaste, and to follow the ideals of pativrata (devoted wife) and sati (faithful widow).
- Women were also valued for their contributions to the family and society, such as domestic work, agricultural labor, artistic skills, and religious piety.

Understanding Gender as a social category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender is a social category that refers to the roles, expectations and norms associated with being male or female in a given society.
- Gender roles are not fixed or natural, but vary across time, place and culture.
- In ancient India, gender roles were influenced by various factors, such as religion, caste, class, law, literature and education.
- Some of the main points to understand gender as a social category in ancient India are:
 - Women in ancient India were generally respected and dignified, especially in the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE). They had access to education, religious rites and philosophical debates. They could also choose their own husbands and participate in public affairs .
 - However, women's status and rights gradually declined in the later periods, such as the post-Vedic, Mauryan, Gupta and medieval periods. They faced various forms of discrimination, oppression and violence, such as child marriage, sati, purdah, dowry and widowhood. They were also denied education, property and inheritance rights. They were largely confined to the domestic sphere and subordinate to their husbands and fathers .
 - Men in ancient India were generally dominant and privileged, especially in the later periods. They had more authority, freedom and opportunities than women. They were expected to perform their duties as warriors, rulers, priests, scholars and householders. They were also the main beneficiaries of the caste system, which gave them social and economic advantages over the lower castes and women .
 - However, men's roles and responsibilities were also shaped by various factors, such as their age, stage of life, occupation and family. They had to follow certain rules and codes of conduct, such as the dharma, the ashramas and the varnas. They also had to face challenges and conflicts, such as wars, invasions, famines and diseases .
 - Gender relations in ancient India were not uniform or static, but dynamic and diverse. They were influenced by various factors, such as region, culture, ideology and history. They also changed over time, depending on the political, social and economic conditions of the society. There were also some exceptions and variations, such as

women rulers, warriors, poets and saints, and men who renounced the world, became monks or supported women's rights .

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status depending on the time period, the religion, the class, and the region they belonged to.
- In general, women in ancient India enjoyed more freedom and respect than in later periods, especially during the Vedic and Indus civilizations.
- Some of the aspects of the representation of women in historical traditions in society in ancient India are:
 - **Religion:** Women in ancient India participated in religious rituals and ceremonies, and some of them were revered as goddesses or sages. Women could also become teachers, scholars, and priests of various religions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, and Jainism. For example, Gargi and Maitreyi were two female philosophers who engaged in debates with male sages in the Upanishads . Some Buddhist and Jain texts also mention female disciples and leaders, such as Mahaprajapati Gautami, the aunt and foster mother of the Buddha, and Malli, the 19th Tirthankara of the Jains.
 - **Education:** Women in ancient India had access to education and learning, especially in the upper classes and royal households. Women could study the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism, and other subjects such as grammar, logic, medicine, and astronomy. Some women also composed hymns and verses that are part of the Vedas, such as the Rig Veda and the Atharva Veda . Women could also pursue arts and crafts, such as music, dance, painting, and weaving.
 - **Society:** Women in ancient India had a significant role in society and family life. They could own and inherit property, engage in trade and commerce, and participate in public affairs and decision-making. They could also choose their own husbands and initiate divorce in some cases. Women were respected as mothers, wives, daughters, and sisters, and were expected to uphold the values of chastity, loyalty, and obedience. However, women also faced some restrictions and challenges, such as the practice of child marriage, polygamy, dowry, and sati (the ritual of widow immolation) .
 - **Culture:** Women in ancient India contributed to the rich and diverse culture of the subcontinent. They were the inspiration and the creators of many literary, artistic, and architectural works. Some of the famous examples of women in ancient Indian culture are: Sita, the heroine of the Ramayana, an epic poem that depicts the ideal woman as devoted, virtuous, and courageous; Draupadi, the central

female character of the Mahabharata, another epic poem that portrays the complex and dynamic woman as strong, intelligent, and assertive; Mirabai, a 16th-century poet and saint who expressed her love and devotion to Lord Krishna through her songs and poems; and Rani Lakshmibai, the 19th-century queen of Jhansi who fought against the British colonial rule and became a symbol of resistance and patriotism .

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status, depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to. However, some common challenges that they faced in society were:

- **Patriarchy:** Patriarchy is a system of social organization where men hold more power and authority than women, and where women are expected to obey and serve men. Patriarchy was prevalent in ancient India, especially in the later periods, such as the Vedic, Epic, and Classical periods. Patriarchy restricted women's autonomy, mobility, education, and rights. Women were often seen as property or dependents of men, and had to follow the rules and norms set by men. Patriarchy also led to the practice of **sati**, where a widow had to immolate herself on the funeral pyre of her husband, as a sign of loyalty and devotion .
- **Violence:** Violence against women was a common challenge faced by women in ancient India. Women were often subjected to physical, sexual, and emotional abuse by their husbands, relatives, or strangers. Women were also vulnerable to abduction, rape, and murder by invaders, such as the Greeks, the Kushans, the Huns, and the Muslims. Violence against women was often justified by religious or cultural beliefs, such as the concept of **dharma**, which prescribed the duties and obligations of women according to their caste and stage of life .
- **Discrimination:** Discrimination against women was another challenge faced by women in ancient India. Women were often discriminated on the basis of their caste, class, age, and marital status. Women of lower castes, such as the **dasis** or the slaves, were exploited and oppressed by the upper castes, such as the **brahmins** or the priests. Women of lower classes, such as the peasants, artisans, and traders, were exploited and oppressed by the upper classes, such as the kings, nobles, and landlords. Women of younger age, such as the girls and the unmarried women, were exploited and oppressed by the older age, such as the parents, elders, and the married men. Women of different marital status, such as the widows, the divorcees, and the remarried women, were exploited and oppressed by the society, which stigmatized and ostracized them .
- **Inequality:** Inequality between men and women was another challenge faced by women in ancient India. Women were often denied equal access to resources, opportunities, and rights that men enjoyed. Women were often

denied equal access to education, health care, property, inheritance, and legal justice. Women were often denied equal access to political, economic, and religious participation and leadership. Women were often denied equal access to respect, dignity, and freedom that men enjoyed. Women were often treated as inferior, subordinate, and secondary to men .

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caturvarnya**, which means “four colours” in Sanskrit.
- The varna system is based on the division of labour and the hierarchy of duties and privileges among different groups of people. It is not strictly based on birth, but rather on one’s qualities, actions, and occupation.
- The four classes or varnas are:
 - **Brahmins**: The highest class, consisting of priests, teachers, scholars, and spiritual leaders. They are responsible for studying, teaching, and performing rituals and sacrifices. They are considered the custodians of the sacred knowledge and the moral law .
 - **Kshatriyas**: The second-highest class, consisting of kings, warriors, rulers, administrators, and protectors. They are responsible for maintaining law and order, defending the society from external and internal threats, and upholding justice and righteousness. They are considered the guardians of the social order and the political power .
 - **Vaishyas**: The third-highest class, consisting of merchants, traders, farmers, artisans, and craftsmen. They are responsible for producing and distributing wealth, goods, and services. They are considered the supporters of the economic activity and the social welfare .
 - **Shudras**: The lowest class, consisting of labourers, servants, and workers. They are responsible for performing various kinds of manual and menial work. They are considered the followers of the higher classes and the providers of the physical labour .
- The varna system is not a rigid or fixed system, but rather a flexible and dynamic one. It allows for mobility and change based on one’s merit, conduct, and inclination. It also recognizes the existence of other groups of people who do not fit into the four classes, such as the outcastes, the forest dwellers, and the foreigners.
- The varna system is not a unique or exclusive feature of ancient India, but rather a common and universal phenomenon of human society. It reflects the natural and inevitable differentiation and specialization of human beings based on their abilities, interests, and vocations. It also serves as a framework for social harmony and cooperation among different groups of people.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery was a universal social evil and had its origin even from the early period of history. In India, its origin is closely associated with the caste system.
- The institution of slavery existed in ancient India, although it operated in much milder form than in the ancient civilizations of the west. Its operation was at a low key that foreign travelers like Megasthenes did not note it, for we do not get any reference in his account about slavery.
- The early history of slavery in the Indian subcontinent is contested because it depends on the translations of terms such as *dasa* and *dasyu*. Greek writer Megasthenes in his work *Indika*, while describing the Maurya Empire states that slavery was banned in Indian society.
- Slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century BCE. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Slaves in ancient India were mostly domestic servants, agricultural laborers, concubines, artisans, and soldiers. They were either captured in wars, born in servitude, sold by their parents or relatives, or enslaved as a punishment for crimes or debts.
- Slaves had no rights or privileges and were completely dependent on their masters. They could be bought, sold, gifted, inherited, or freed by their owners. They were also subject to physical and sexual abuse, torture, and exploitation.
- Some slaves, however, managed to rise to high positions in the society, such as ministers, generals, governors, and even rulers. For example, Malik Ambar, an Ethiopian slave, became a powerful military leader and a kingmaker in the Deccan region in the 17th century.
- Slavery gradually declined in India with the advent of Islam, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism, which preached equality and compassion for all living beings. The British also enacted laws to prohibit slavery and emancipate the slaves in the 19th century.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

- Indian literature is the literature produced in the Indian subcontinent, which includes languages such as Sanskrit, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Tamil, Telugu, Marathi, Gujarati, Malayalam, Kannada, and many others. Indian literature reflects the diversity and richness of Indian culture, history, philosophy, and religion. Indian literature can be classified into four broad categories: classical, medieval, modern, and contemporary.
- Indian culture is the collective expression of the values, beliefs, customs, traditions, and practices of the people of India. Indian culture is famous across the world for its diversity in music, art, dance, language, cuisine,

costume, philosophy, and literature. Indian culture is influenced by various factors, such as geography, history, religion, and foreign invasions. Some of the important characteristics of Indian culture are civilized communication, respect for elders, tolerance, hospitality, and unity in diversity.

- Indian tradition is the set of norms and rules that guide the behavior and conduct of the people of India. Indian tradition is based on the ancient scriptures and texts, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Bhagavad Gita, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, and the Puranas. Indian tradition encompasses various aspects of life, such as family, marriage, education, occupation, social etiquette, festivals, rituals, and ceremonies. Indian tradition is dynamic and adaptable, as it changes with time and context.
- Indian practices are the actions and activities that the people of India perform in accordance with their culture and tradition. Indian practices include various forms of worship, meditation, yoga, ayurveda, astrology, vegetarianism, non-violence, charity, and service. Indian practices also include various forms of art, such as painting, sculpture, architecture, music, dance, drama, and literature. Indian practices aim to achieve harmony, balance, and happiness in life.
- Indian literary theory and criticism is the study and evaluation of Indian literature from various perspectives and frameworks. Indian literary theory and criticism has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Indian literary theory and criticism is based on the principles and concepts of Indian aesthetics, such as rasa, alamkara, dhvani, riti, guna, dosha, and vakrokti. Indian literary theory and criticism also incorporates various schools of thought, such as mimamsa, nyaya, vedanta, sankhya, yoga, and tantra. Indian literary theory and criticism is relevant and useful for understanding and appreciating the beauty and meaning of Indian literature.

Evolution of script in India

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. A language is a method of communication. A script refers to a collection of characters used to write one or more languages.
- India has a long history of writing. While India has been a literate culture for millennia, it has also greatly valued oral knowledge. The ancient Hindu scriptures, the Vedas, the oldest of which date back to around 1500 BCE, were transmitted orally for centuries before being written down.
- The earliest known script in India is the Indus script, which was used by the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1900 BCE). The Indus script is still undeciphered and its linguistic affiliation is uncertain.
- The most influential script in India is the Brahmi script, which was used to write the edicts of Emperor Ashoka (c. 269-232 BCE) and the earli-

est Buddhist and Jain texts. The Brahmi script is the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts, as well as some scripts in Southeast Asia .

- The Brahmi script evolved into different regional variants over time, depending on the cultural and linguistic influences. Some of the major scripts derived from Brahmi are:
 - Kharosthi: This script was used in northwestern India and Central Asia from the 3rd century BCE to the 4th century CE. It was influenced by the Aramaic script and written from right to left .
 - Gupta: This script was used in northern and central India from the 4th to the 6th century CE. It was a refined and elegant form of Brahmi and the precursor of the Nagari script .
 - Nagari: This script was used in northern India from the 7th century CE onwards. It is the parent script of Devanagari, which is used to write Hindi, Sanskrit, Marathi, Nepali and other languages .
 - Siddhamatrika: This script was used in eastern India from the 6th to the 12th century CE. It was a cursive form of Brahmi and the ancestor of the Bengali-Assamese script .
 - Grantha: This script was used in southern India from the 6th to the 19th century CE. It was used to write Sanskrit and Tamil, and influenced the Malayalam and Telugu scripts .
 - Pallava: This script was used in southern India and Southeast Asia from the 6th to the 9th century CE. It was a variant of Grantha and the source of the Khmer, Thai, Lao and Burmese scripts .
 - Vatteluttu: This script was used in southern India from the 8th to the 16th century CE. It was a rounded form of Brahmi and the precursor of the Tamil script .
- Due to greater emphasis on quicker approach rather than use of monumental inscriptions led to emergence of cursive styles that formed India's modern script.
- Scripts in south India became rounded due to writing on palm leaves.
- Some of the modern Indian scripts are:
 - Devanagari: This script is used to write Hindi, Sanskrit, Marathi, Nepali and other languages. It is a descendant of the Nagari script and has a horizontal line on top of the letters .
 - Bengali-Assamese: This script is used to write Bengali, Assamese and other languages. It is a descendant of the Siddhamatrika script and has a vertical line on the right of the letters .
 - Gujarati: This script is used to write Gujarati and other languages. It is a variant of the Devanagari script and has a small hook on the top of the letters .
 - Gurmukhi: This script is used to write Punjabi and other languages. It is a modified form of the Landa script, which was derived from the Brahmi script. It has a horizontal line on the bottom of the letters [

Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The languages of India belong to four major language families: Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austroasiatic and Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that were brought to India by the Indo-Aryan migrations around 1500 BCE. They include Hindi, Bengali, Marathi, Urdu, Punjabi and many others.
- The Dravidian languages are native to the southern and central regions of India and are unrelated to the Indo-European languages. They include Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam and others.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by tribal and indigenous people in eastern and central India. They include Santali, Munda, Khasi and others.
- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by people in the northeastern and northern border regions of India. They include Meitei, Bodo, Tibetan, Nepali and others.
- The evolution of Indian languages is influenced by various factors such as geography, history, culture, religion, politics and contact with other languages.
- Some of the major influences on Indian languages are:
 - Sanskrit: The ancient language of Hindu scriptures and classical literature that has influenced many Indian languages, especially the Indo-Aryan ones.
 - Prakrit: The vernacular languages that evolved from Sanskrit and were spoken by the common people in ancient and medieval India. They gave rise to the modern Indo-Aryan languages.
 - Apabhramsha: The transitional languages that developed from Prakrit and were spoken in medieval India. They were the precursors of the modern Indo-Aryan languages.
 - Persian: The language of the Mughal Empire that ruled India from the 16th to the 18th century. It influenced many Indian languages, especially Urdu and Hindi.
 - Arabic: The language of Islam that was brought to India by the Muslim invaders and traders. It influenced many Indian languages, especially Urdu and Hindi.
 - English: The language of the British colonial rule that lasted from the 18th to the 20th century. It is the official language of India along with Hindi and is widely used as a lingua franca and a medium of education and communication.

Harappan Script

- The Harappan script, also known as the Indus script, is a corpus of sym-

bols produced by the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished in the northwest of the Indian subcontinent from c. 2500 to 1900 BCE.

- The script is found on seals, tablets, pottery, copper plates and other artefacts, mostly in the Indus cities of Harappa and Mohenjo-daro.
- The script has not been deciphered yet, and therefore the language or languages it represents are unknown .
- The script is generally written from right to left, but some inscriptions show signs of boustrophedon (alternating direction).
- The script is regarded as pictographic, since its signs represent birds, fish, human forms and other objects, but it may also have some phonetic or syllabic elements .
- The script has about 400 signs, some of which are variants or combinations of others . The signs vary in size and shape, and some may have been influenced by other writing systems, such as Mesopotamian cuneiform.
- The script has been the subject of many attempts to decipher it, using various methods and approaches, but none have been widely accepted or proven . Some of the main challenges are the brevity of the inscriptions, the lack of bilingual texts, the diversity of the signs and the uncertainty of the underlying language or languages.
- The script is an important source of information about the Indus Valley Civilisation, its culture, trade, religion and society, and may reveal more secrets if it is ever deciphered.

Brahmi Script

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- Brahmi script appeared as a fully developed script in the third century BCE.
- Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations.
- Brahmi script is an abugida, which means that each consonant has an inherent vowel, and other vowels are indicated by diacritical marks .
- Brahmi script is written from left to right, and has 33 consonants and 9 vowels.
- Brahmi script is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, or developed from the Indus or Harappa script.
- Brahmi script was used to write various languages, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Tamil, and others .
- Brahmi script was deciphered in the 19th century by James Prinsep, with the help of inscriptions of Ashoka, a Mauryan emperor who ruled most of India in the 3rd century BCE .
- Brahmi script gave rise to many other scripts, such as Kharosthi, Gupta,

Siddham, Nagari, Sharada, and others .

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The word Veda means “knowledge” in Sanskrit, and the Vedas are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- There are four Vedas: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda. Each Veda consists of four parts: the Samhitas (hymns), the Brahmanas (rituals), the Aranyakas (forest texts) and the Upanishads (philosophy).
- The Vedas are considered to be revealed by the gods to the sages (rishis) who heard them in a state of meditation. The Vedas are also regarded as eternal, uncreated and infallible by orthodox Hindus.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day. All the obligatory duties of Hindus at birth, marriage, death etc. are guided by Vedic rituals.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The Upanishads are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts.
- The Upanishads are also known as Vedanta, which means “the end of the Veda” or “the highest purpose of the Veda”.
- The Upanishads are composed in Sanskrit and date from around the 8th to the 6th century BCE, although some may be later additions.
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only 13 are considered the principal or the classical Upanishads. These are: Isha, Kena, Katha, Prashna, Mundaka, Mandukya, Taittiriya, Aitareya, Chandogya, Brihadaranyaka, Kaushitaki, Shvetashvatara, and Maitri.
- The Upanishads are dialogues or teachings between sages, students, kings, gods, or other beings, often in the form of stories or parables.
- The Upanishads introduce the concepts of Brahman, the ultimate reality that pervades everything; Atman, the true self or soul that is identical with Brahman; and Moksha, the liberation from the cycle of rebirth (samsara) that is achieved by realizing the identity of Atman and Brahman.
- The Upanishads also discuss various topics such as ethics, cosmology, metaphysics, psychology, meditation, yoga, and the paths to knowledge, devotion, and action.
- The Upanishads have influenced various schools of Hindu philosophy, as well as other religions such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and Zoroastri-

anism. They have also inspired many thinkers and writers from different cultures and times, such as Schopenhauer, Emerson, Thoreau, Gandhi, and Tagore.

The Ramayana

- The Ramayana is a Hindu epic about the life of the legendary Prince Rama of Kosala .
- Rama is the virtuous, wise, and powerful son of King Dasaratha, who wants him to succeed him as king .
- Rama marries the beautiful Sita, the princess of Mithila, after lifting and stringing the bow of Siva, a divine challenge that no other man can accomplish .
- Rama is exiled from his homeland for 14 years by his stepmother Kaikeyi, who wants her son Bharata to be king instead .
- Rama, Sita, and Rama's brother Lakshmana go to the forest, where they encounter many sages, friends, and foes .
- Ravana, the demon king of Lanka, abducts Sita with the help of his sister Surpanakha and his uncle Maricha .
- Rama and Lakshmana search for Sita, aided by the monkey king Sugriva and his general Hanuman .
- Rama and his allies build a bridge to Lanka and wage a war against Ravana and his army .
- Rama defeats Ravana in a fierce battle and rescues Sita, who proves her chastity by undergoing a fire ordeal .
- Rama, Sita, and Lakshmana return to Ayodhya, where Rama is crowned as king and rules with justice and peace .

The Mahabharata

- The Mahabharata is an ancient Sanskrit epic poem that tells the story of the kingdom of Kurus .
- It is based on a real war that took place in the 13th or 14th century B.C. between the Kuru and Panchala tribes of the Indian subcontinent .
- It is regarded as both a historical account of Hinduism's birth and a code of ethics for the faithful .
- It tells of the struggle for supremacy between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas, who are the descendants of Bharata, a legendary king .
- The Kauravas are the sons of Dhrtarastra, who is blind and cannot inherit the throne, and the Pandavas are the sons of Pandu, who becomes king but renounces the throne due to a curse .
- The epic is divided into 18 books, or parvas, which contain about 74,000 verses, as well as additional prose sections .
- The main narrative is preceded by a prologue, which explains the origin of the epic and introduces the main characters and themes .

- The main narrative is followed by an epilogue, which describes the aftermath of the war and the fate of the surviving characters .
- The most famous and influential part of the epic is the Bhagavad Gita, which is a dialogue between the Pandava prince Arjuna and the god Krishna, who acts as his charioteer and guide in the battlefield .
- The Bhagavad Gita contains philosophical and ethical teachings that are central to Hinduism, such as the concepts of dharma (duty), karma (action and consequence), and moksha (liberation) .
- The Mahabharata is not only a literary masterpiece, but also a cultural and religious treasure that has influenced many aspects of Indian art, literature, philosophy, and society .

Puranas

- Puranas are a vast genre of Indian literature that deal with various topics, especially legends and traditional lore.
- Puranas are considered one of the most ancient Hindu texts and are regarded as the fifth Veda.
- Puranas are composed in Sanskrit verse and date from the 4th century BCE to about 1000 CE.
- Puranas are said to treat five subjects, or “five signs”: the primary creation of the universe, secondary creation after periodic annihilation, the genealogy of gods and patriarchs, the reigns of the Manus (the first humans), and the history of the solar and lunar dynasties.
- Puranas are also known for the intricate layers of symbolism and allegory depicted within their stories.
- Puranas are divided into six categories based on the main deity they glorify: Vishnu Puranas, Siva Puranas, Brahma Puranas, Vaishnava Puranas, Saiva Puranas, and Sakti Puranas.
- Puranas are also classified into Mahapuranas (major Puranas) and Upapuranas (minor Puranas), based on the length and authority of the texts.
- Puranas are a source of religious and cultural information for Hindus, as they contain stories of gods, goddesses, sages, kings, heroes, demons, and sacred places.

Buddhist Literature in Pali,Prakrit And Sanskrit

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism.
- The earliest Buddhist literature was composed in Pali and Prakrit, which were the languages spoken by the people of northern India during the time of the Buddha (6th-5th century BCE).
- Pali is a dialect of Prakrit that was used as the lingua franca of the early Buddhist community. It is said that the Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, and they have been recorded in the same language .
- Prakrit is a generic term for any language that differs from the mainstream

Sanskrit, which was the language of the Brahmanical elite and the classical literature. Prakrits were the vernacular languages of various regions and social groups .

- The most important collection of Buddhist literature in Pali is the Pali Canon, also known as the Tipitaka (Three Baskets). It consists of three main sections: the Vinaya Pitaka (Basket of Discipline), which contains the rules and regulations for the monastic order; the Sutta Pitaka (Basket of Discourses), which contains the dialogues and sermons of the Buddha and his disciples; and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (Basket of Higher Teaching), which contains the systematic analysis and exposition of the Buddhist doctrine.
- The Pali Canon is the authoritative scripture for the Theravada school of Buddhism, which is prevalent in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. It is also a source of inspiration and guidance for other schools of Buddhism, such as the Mahayana and the Vajrayana.
- Besides the Pali Canon, there are other Buddhist works in Pali, such as the commentaries (Atthakatha), the sub-commentaries (Tika), the chronicles (Vamsa), the biographies (Apadana), the poems (Gatha), and the stories (Jataka).
- Buddhist literature in Prakrit includes the works of various schools and sects, such as the Mahasanghikas, the Sarvastivadins, the Sthaviras, the Dharmaguptakas, and the Mahisasakas. These works are mostly preserved in Chinese and Tibetan translations, as the original Prakrit texts are either lost or fragmentary .
- Some of the Prakrit languages that were used for Buddhist literature are Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari. These languages reflect the regional and cultural diversity of the Buddhist world, as well as the literary and artistic creativity of the Buddhist authors .
- Buddhist literature in Prakrit includes the following genres: the Agamas (Correspondences), which are the counterparts of the Pali Suttas; the Vinayas (Disciplines), which are the counterparts of the Pali Vinaya; the Abhidharmas (Higher Teachings), which are the counterparts of the Pali Abhidhamma; the Avadanas (Exemplary Stories), which are the stories of the past lives and deeds of the Buddha and his disciples; the Sutras (Discourses), which are the Mahayana scriptures that expound the doctrines of emptiness, compassion, and bodhisattva ideal; and the Tantras (Esoteric Teachings), which are the Vajrayana scriptures that reveal the secrets of the ritual, meditation, and transformation .
- Buddhist literature in Sanskrit emerged later than the Pali and Prakrit literature, around the 1st century CE. It was influenced by the classical Sanskrit literature, as well as the Brahmanical and Jain traditions. It was also a result of the linguistic and cultural assimilation of the Buddhist communities in the Indian subcontinent.
- Buddhist literature in Sanskrit includes the works of the Mahayana and the Vajrayana schools, as well as some of the Hinayana schools. It also includes the works of the famous Buddhist philosophers, such as Nagarjuna,

Asanga, Vasubandhu, Dignaga, Dharmakirti, Santideva, and Candrakirti.

- Buddhist literature in Sanskrit includes the following genres: the Mahayana Sutras, such as the Prajnaparamita Sutras (Perfection of Wisdom Sutras)

Jain Literature in Pali,Prakrit And Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest religions in India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of the Jain faith.
- Jain literature can be broadly classified into two categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature consists of the sacred scriptures of the Jains, which are called Agamas or Siddhantas. These are the authoritative texts that contain the teachings of the Tirthankaras, the enlightened founders of Jainism.
- Non-canonical literature consists of various works that explain, comment, or expand on the canonical literature. These include commentaries, biographies, histories, stories, poems, art, and philosophy.
- Jain literature is written in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, and others. Prakrit, Pali, and Sanskrit are the three main languages of Jain literature in the ancient and medieval periods.
- Prakrit is a collective term for the Middle-Indo Aryan languages that evolved from Sanskrit, the classical language of ancient India. Prakrit was the vernacular language of the common people and was used for various purposes, such as administration, trade, and literature.
- Pali is a form of Prakrit that was used in the eastern regions of India, such as Magadha and Bihar. Pali was the language of the Buddhist scriptures and was also adopted by some Jain sects, such as the Svetambaras.
- Sanskrit is the refined and standardized form of the Indo-Aryan languages that was used for religious, scholarly, and literary purposes. Sanskrit was the language of the Vedic scriptures and was also adopted by some Jain sects, such as the Digambaras.
- Jain literature in Prakrit is the oldest and most extensive. The canonical Agamas are mostly written in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit dialect that was spoken by Mahavira, the 24th and last Tirthankara of Jainism. The Agamas are divided into two main groups: the Angas (limbs) and the Angabahyas (those outside the limbs). The Angas are the primary texts that contain the core doctrines and ethics of Jainism. The Angabahyas are the secondary texts that contain supplementary material, such as stories, legends, cosmology, and rituals.
- Jain literature in Pali is relatively less and mostly belongs to the Svetambara sect. The Svetambaras are one of the two main branches of Jainism, who accept the authority of the Agamas and believe that the Tirthankaras

were human and wore white clothes. The Svetambaras used Pali to translate some of the Agamas and to write their own commentaries and works, such as the Kalpasutra, the Nirvyuktis, and the Avashyakas.

- Jain literature in Sanskrit is more diverse and mostly belongs to the Digambara sect. The Digambaras are the other main branch of Jainism, who reject the authority of the Agamas and believe that the Tirthankaras were divine and naked. The Digambaras used Sanskrit to write their own scriptures and works, such as the Purvas, the Shatkhandagama, the Kasayaprabharta, and the Tattvarthasutra. Sanskrit was also used by both sects to write various non-canonical works, such as the Jaina Puranas, the Jaina Mahakavyas, the Jaina Shastras, and the Jaina Darshanas.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- Kautilya's Arthashastra is a Sanskrit text on politics, economics, military strategy, and statecraft, attributed to Kautilya, also known as Chanakya or Vishnugupta, who was a professor at Taxila University and the prime minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya in the 4th century BCE .
- The Arthashastra is divided into 15 books, 150 chapters, and 180 topics, covering various aspects of governance, administration, diplomacy, law, taxation, trade, agriculture, industry, welfare, defense, espionage, and war.
- The Arthashastra is considered to be one of the earliest and most comprehensive treatises on statecraft in the world, and it reflects the political, social, and economic conditions of ancient India as well as the worldview and values of Kautilya .
- The Arthashastra is based on the principle of artha, which means material gain, wealth, or prosperity, and it advocates a pragmatic and utilitarian approach to politics, economics, and ethics, with the aim of maximizing the welfare and security of the people and the state .
- The Arthashastra also contains insights and advice on various topics such as leadership, management, human psychology, diplomacy, espionage, ethics, morality, justice, and public policy, and it has influenced many thinkers and rulers throughout history, both in India and abroad .

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages in India. It has a rich literary tradition that spans over two millennia. Many Sanskrit authors have contributed to various genres of literature, such as poetry, drama, epics, philosophy, grammar, and aesthetics. Here are some of the most famous Sanskrit authors in India:

- **Kalidasa:** He is considered to be the greatest Sanskrit poet and dramatist of India. He lived in the 4th or 5th century CE, during the Gupta period. He wrote three famous romantic plays: *Malavikagnimitram*, *Vikramorvaschiam*, and *Abhijnanashakuntalam*. He also wrote two epic

poems: *Raghuvamsha* and *Kumarasambhava*. His lyrical poems, such as *Meghaduta* and *Ritusamhara*, are known for their beauty and elegance. He is admired for his mastery of language, imagery, and emotion.

- **Bhasa:** He is one of the earliest and most prolific Sanskrit dramatists of India. He is said to have lived around the 3rd century CE, before Kalidasa. He wrote thirteen plays, which were rediscovered in 1912 by an Indian scholar. His plays are based on the epics *Mahabharata* and *Ramayana*, as well as historical and mythical stories. His plays are known for their realism, humor, and innovation. Some of his famous plays are *Urubhanga*, *Svapnavasavadatta*, and *Pratima-nataka*.
- **Bharavi:** He is another Sanskrit poet of the Gupta period, who wrote an epic poem called *Kiratarjuniya*. It is based on a story from the *Mahabharata*, where Arjuna fights with a hunter, who is actually Lord Shiva in disguise. The poem is known for its complexity, style, and rhetoric. It has 18 cantos and 1600 verses. It is considered to be one of the six great Sanskrit epics (*Mahakavyas*).
- **Bhartṛhari:** He is a Sanskrit poet and philosopher, who lived in the 5th or 6th century CE. He is famous for his three collections of verses, called *Shatakas*. They are *Niti-shataka* (verses on moral conduct), *Shringara-shataka* (verses on love and eroticism), and *Vairagya-shataka* (verses on renunciation and detachment). His verses are known for their wisdom, wit, and paradox. He is also the author of a treatise on grammar and linguistics, called *Vakyapadiya*.
- **Banabhatta:** He is a Sanskrit poet and prose writer, who lived in the 7th century CE, during the reign of King Harshavardhana. He was the court poet of the king, and wrote two historical novels, called *Harshacharita* and *Kadambari*. The former is a biography of the king, and the latter is a romantic story of love and reincarnation. His novels are known for their elaborate style, rich descriptions, and imaginative plots. He also wrote a poem, called *Harsacaritacintamani*, which praises the king's achievements.

Telugu Literature

- Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken mainly in the states of Andhra Pradesh and Telangana in India.
- Telugu literature consists of various genres, such as poetry, prose, drama, folklore, and song lyrics. Some of the prominent forms of Telugu literature are *śataka*, *padya*, *gadya*, *kāvya*, *nāṭaka*, *prabandha*, and *campū*.
- Telugu literature has a long and rich history, dating back to at least the 11th century CE, when the poet Nannaya translated the *Mahabharata* into Telugu. Some of the other notable early Telugu poets are Tikkana, Errana, Nannayya, Srinatha, and Potana.
- Telugu literature reached its zenith during the Vijayanagara Empire

(14th-16th centuries), when poets such as Allasani Peddana, Nandi Timmana, Tenali Ramakrishna, Pingali Surana, and Krishnadevaraya flourished. They wrote in various styles, such as prabandha, campū, and śṛṅgāra.

- Telugu literature also witnessed a revival during the 19th and 20th centuries, when social reformers, nationalists, and modernists emerged. Some of the influential writers of this period are Gurajada Apparao, Kandukuri Veeresalingam, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, Sri Sri, Jashuva, and C. Narayana Reddy.
- Telugu literature has been recognized with several awards, such as the Jnanpith Award, the Sahitya Akademi Award, and the Padma Shri. Telugu literature has also influenced other languages, such as Kannada, Tamil, and Hindi.

Kannada Literature

- Kannada literature is the corpus of written forms of the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script .
- The earliest records in Kannada are inscriptions dating from the 6th century AD onward. The oldest existing literary work in Kannada is the Kavi-rajamarga, a treatise on poetics, written by King Nripatunga Amoghavarsha I in the 9th century.
- Kannada literature can be broadly divided into three periods: classical, medieval and modern. The classical period (9th to 14th century) produced works on grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama and cuisine, as well as dictionaries and encyclopedias. Some of the notable writers of this period are Pampa, Ranna, Ponna, Nagavarma I, Basavanna, Akka Mahadevi, Harihara, Raghavanka and Kumara Vyasa .
- The medieval period (14th to 18th century) witnessed the development of various literary forms such as vachana, shatpadi, tripadi, ragale, champu and kavya, as well as the growth of devotional movements such as Virashaivism and Vaishnavism. Some of the prominent writers of this period are Madhva, Vidyaranya, Harihara II, Kumara Valmiki, Sarvajna, Purandara Dasa, Kanaka Dasa, Lakshmisā, Ratnakaravarni and Honnali Ramayya .
- The modern period (19th century to present) saw the emergence of new genres such as novel, short story, essay, biography, autobiography, criticism, translation and children's literature, as well as the influence of Western literature and social reforms. Some of the influential writers of this period are B.M. Srikantaiah, Kuvempu, D.V. Gundappa, Masti Venkatesha Iyengar, Bendre, Shivaram Karanth, Gopalakrishna Adiga, U.R. Ananthamurthy, Girish Karnad, P. Lankesh, Tejaswi, Kambar and Chandrashekhara Kambara .

Malayalam Literature

- Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala.
- The earliest extant literary work in Malayalam is **Ramacharitam** (late 12th or early 13th century), an epic poem based on the Sanskrit Ramayana.
- Malayalam literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning various genres, styles, periods and influences.
- Some of the major genres of Malayalam literature are:
 - **Pattu** (song) literature, which consists of lyrical poems, often accompanied by music and dance. Pattu literature includes folk songs, devotional songs, ballads, and heroic poems.
 - **Manipravalam** (ruby-coral) literature, which is a hybrid style of writing that combines Malayalam and Sanskrit words and grammar. Manipravalam literature is mainly erotic poetry, composed by the court poets of the medieval period.
 - **Campu** (mixed) literature, which is a blend of prose and verse, often using different languages and scripts. Campu literature is mainly historical and biographical, narrating the lives and deeds of kings, saints, and heroes.
 - **Attakkatha** (play-script) literature, which is the literature of the traditional dance-drama form of Kathakali. Attakkatha literature consists of dialogues, songs, and descriptions of the characters, costumes, and movements of the performers.
 - **Novel** literature, which is a relatively modern genre of Malayalam literature, influenced by the Western literary tradition. Novel literature emerged in the 19th century, with the works of writers such as O. Chandu Menon, C.V. Raman Pillai, and S.K. Pottekkatt.
 - **Short story** literature, which is another modern genre of Malayalam literature, influenced by the Western and Indian literary traditions. Short story literature emerged in the early 20th century, with the works of writers such as K. Saraswathi Amma, Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai, and Vaikom Muhammad Basheer.
 - **Poetry** literature, which is a diverse and vibrant genre of Malayalam literature, reflecting the social, political, and cultural changes of the times. Poetry literature includes modernist, romantic, progressive, feminist, and postmodernist movements, among others.
 - **Drama** literature, which is a genre of Malayalam literature that explores the themes of human relationships, conflicts, and emotions. Drama literature includes realistic, absurd, and experimental forms, among others.
 - **Essay** literature, which is a genre of Malayalam literature that expresses the opinions, views, and arguments of the writers on various topics. Essay literature includes literary, cultural, political, and personal essays, among others.

- **Travelogue** literature, which is a genre of Malayalam literature that describes the experiences, observations, and impressions of the writers during their travels. Travelogue literature includes domestic and foreign travels, as well as spiritual and imaginary journeys. The first travelogue in any Indian language is the Malayalam **Varthamanapusthakam**, written by Paremmakkal Thoma Kathanar in 1785.
- Some of the notable writers and works of Malayalam literature are:
 - **Ezhuthachan** (16th century), considered the father of Malayalam literature, who wrote the Malayalam versions of the Sanskrit epics Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the devotional poems Hari-nama Kirtanam and Jnanappana.
 - **Kunchan Nambiar** (18th century), considered the founder of the satirical verse form of Thullal, who wrote over 40 Thullal poems, such as Kalyana Saugandhikam and Kirmeeravadham.
 - **Kumaran Asan** (1873-1924), considered one of the triumvirate poets of modern Malayalam literature, who wrote the revolutionary poems Duravastha, Veena Poovu, and Karuna, among others.
 - **Vallathol Narayana Menon** (1878-1958), considered one of the triumvirate poets of modern Malayalam

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, composed by various poets between the 1st and 4th centuries CE.
- Sangama literature is also known as “the poetry of the noble ones” and is considered to be a valuable source of information on the ancient Tamil society, culture, religion, and history.
- Sangama literature is divided into two main categories: akam (love) and puram (heroism). Akam poems deal with various aspects of love, such as courtship, separation, union, and infidelity. Puram poems praise the deeds of kings, warriors, and patrons, and also describe the life of the common people, such as farmers, fishermen, and artisans.
- Sangama literature is further classified into eight anthologies (ettut-tokai) and ten long poems (patthupattu). The eight anthologies are: Ainkurunuru, Kuruntokai, Natrinai, Akananuru, Kalittokai, Paripatal, Patirrupattu, and Purananuru. The ten long poems are: Tirumurukar-ruppatai, Porunararruppatai, Cirupanarruppatai, Perumparruppatai, Pattinappalai, Mullaippattu, Maduraikkanci, Kurincippattu, Nedunal-vadai, and Malaipatukatam.
- Sangama literature also includes two grammatical works: Tolkappiyam and Nannul, and one ethical treatise: Tirukkural. Tolkappiyam is the oldest extant work of Tamil grammar and poetics, and deals with the phonology, morphology, syntax, and semantics of the language. Nannul is a later work that elaborates on the rules of Tolkappiyam. Tirukkural is a collection of 1330 couplets that expound on the virtues of righteousness, wealth, and love.

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are mainly Indo-Aryan languages spoken by the people of North India.
- The most widely spoken language in North India is Hindi, which is also the official language of the Indian Union and several states and union territories in the region.
- Hindi has many dialects and varieties, such as Braj Bhasha, Awadhi, Khari Boli, Bhojpuri, Magahi, Maithili, etc. Some of these are sometimes considered separate languages by their speakers.
- Urdu is another important language in North India, especially in the states of Jammu and Kashmir, Delhi, Uttar Pradesh and Bihar. Urdu is closely related to Hindi, but has more Persian and Arabic influence and uses the Perso-Arabic script.
- Punjabi is the dominant language in the state of Punjab and the union territory of Chandigarh. It is also spoken by a significant minority in Delhi, Haryana, Himachal Pradesh and Jammu and Kashmir. Punjabi is written in the Gurmukhi script, which is derived from the Devanagari script.
- Kashmiri is the official language of the union territory of Jammu and Kashmir. It belongs to the Dardic branch of the Indo-Aryan languages and has a rich literary tradition. Kashmiri is written in the Perso-Arabic script, but also has its own script called Sharda.
- Dogri is another Dardic language spoken in the Jammu region of Jammu and Kashmir and parts of Himachal Pradesh and Punjab. It is also an official language of Jammu and Kashmir and is written in the Devanagari script.
- Pahari languages are a group of languages spoken in the Himalayan regions of North India, mainly in Himachal Pradesh, Uttarakhand and Jammu and Kashmir. Some of the major Pahari languages are Garhwali, Kumaoni, Kangri, Chamba, Mandeali, etc. They are usually written in the Devanagari script, but some also use the Takri script.
- Sindhi is a language spoken by the Sindhi people, who mainly live in the Sindh province of Pakistan, but also have a sizable diaspora in India, especially in the states of Gujarat, Rajasthan, Maharashtra and Delhi. Sindhi is an official language of India and is written in the Devanagari or the Arabic script.
- Other languages spoken in North India include Rajasthani, Gujarati, Marwari, Haryanvi, Nepali, Ladakhi, Balti, etc. Each of these languages has its own cultural and historical significance and reflects the diversity of the region.

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature refers to the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Rajasthani,

and others.

- North Indian literature is influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas.
- North Indian literature also reflects the cultural diversity and historical events of the region, such as the Islamic invasions, the Mughal empire, the British colonial rule, the partition of India, and the modern nation-building.
- Some of the prominent genres of North Indian literature are poetry, drama, novel, short story, and essay.
- Some of the notable authors of North Indian literature are Kalidasa, Kabir, Amir Khusrow, Mirza Ghalib, Premchand, Rabindranath Tagore, Munshi Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Amrita Pritam, and others.
- North Indian literature has contributed to the development of Indian literature as a whole, as well as to the enrichment of world literature.

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature is the jewel in the crown of Persian culture. It has profoundly influenced the literatures of Ottoman Turkey, Muslim India and Turkic Central Asia.
- Persian was the official language of most Muslim dynasties in the Indian subcontinent, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Bengal Sultanate, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire and their successor states, and the Sikh Empire. It was also the dominant cultured language of poetry and literature.
- Persian literature in India started under Balban, who was a patron of learning and many eminent poets lived at his court. Balban's eldest son Muhammad (also known as Khan i-Shahid) was also a great patron of learning and many eminent poets lived at his court. The famous Persian poets Amir Khusrau and Mir Hassan Dehlvi started their poetic career under him.
- Two factors seem to have deeply affected the course of Persian literature in India: the stream of refugee elite, fleeing before the Mongol onslaught in Transoxiana and Khurasan; and the stabilization of Muslim military and political centres in the Indian subcontinent.
- Persian literary sources of medieval India reflect the thought, social structure, culture, political institutions of that time or the spirit of the age. Persian poetry, literature and chronicles enjoyed patronage under the Delhi Sultanate and Mughals.
- Some of the notable works of Persian literature in India are:
 - Tabaqat-i-Nasiri by Minhaj-i-Siraj, a comprehensive history of the Muslim world from the time of the Prophet Muhammad to the reign

of Sultan Nasiruddin Mahmud of Delhi.

- Tarikh-i-Firoz Shahi by Ziauddin Barani, a history of the Delhi Sultanate from the reign of Balban to that of Firoz Shah Tughlaq.
- Muntakhab-ut-Tawarikh by Abdul Qadir Badauni, a history of the Mughal Empire from the reign of Babur to that of Akbar.
- Akbarnama by Abul Fazl, a biography of Akbar and a chronicle of his reign.
- Ain-i-Akbari by Abul Fazl, a detailed account of the administration, culture, religion and society of the Mughal Empire under Akbar.
- Tuzuk-i-Jahangiri by Jahangir, the memoirs of Jahangir, the fourth Mughal emperor.
- Padshahnama by Abdul Hamid Lahori, a history of the first twenty years of the reign of Shah Jahan, the fifth Mughal emperor.
- Masnavi-i-Ma'navi by Jalaluddin Rumi, a mystical poem of Sufism, widely read and translated in India.
- Diwan-i-Hafiz by Hafiz, a collection of lyrical poems, admired for their beauty and wisdom in India.
- Gulistan and Bustan by Saadi, two collections of moral stories and anecdotes, popular in India.
- Anvar-i-Suhaili by Husain Vaiz Kashifi, a Persian adaptation of the Panchatantra, a collection of animal fables from India.
- Mathnavi-i-Nizami by Nizami Ganjavi, a collection of five epic poems, based on historical and legendary themes, widely read and imitated in India.

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken mainly by Muslims in Pakistan and northern India.
- Urdu literature emerged from the interaction of Persian, Arabic, and Turkish influences with the local languages of the Indian subcontinent, especially Hindi.
- Urdu literature is written in the Perso-Arabic script, which is derived from the Arabic alphabet with additional letters to represent sounds not found in Arabic.
- Urdu literature is known for its rich poetic tradition, especially the forms of ghazal and nazm, which are lyrical poems that express various themes of love, beauty, sorrow, and mysticism.
- Some of the most famous Urdu poets are Mir Taqi Mir, Mirza Ghalib, Allama Iqbal, Faiz Ahmed Faiz, and Ahmad Faraz.
- Urdu literature also includes prose genres, such as the short story (afsanah), the novel (navel), the essay (mazmoon), and the biography (sawaneh).
- Some of the most prominent Urdu prose writers are Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Ismat Chughtai, Qurratulain Hyder, and Intizar Hussain.
- Urdu literature reflects the cultural, social, and political realities of the Indian subcontinent, as well as the aspirations and challenges of the Muslim

community.

- Urdu literature has been influenced by and has influenced other literary traditions, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Sindhi, Bengali, and English.

Hindi Literature

Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi literature has a long and rich history, dating back to the 11th century. Some of the main genres and themes of Hindi literature are:

- **Poetry:** Hindi poetry is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of literature, ranging from devotional and philosophical verses to romantic and lyrical poems. Some of the famous poets of Hindi literature are Kabir, Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, Rahim, Premchand, Nirala, Mahadevi Verma, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, and Dushyant Kumar .
- **Prose:** Hindi prose emerged in the 19th century, influenced by the Western literature and the social and political movements of the time. Hindi prose includes novels, short stories, essays, biographies, and memoirs. Some of the prominent prose writers of Hindi literature are Bharatendu Harishchandra, Devaki Nandan Khatri, Munshi Premchand, Jaishankar Prasad, Raja Rao, Yashpal, Bhisham Sahni, Kamleshwar, and Nirmal Verma .
- **Drama:** Hindi drama is a relatively modern genre, which developed in the 20th century, inspired by the classical Sanskrit drama and the modern European theatre. Hindi drama covers various themes, such as social issues, historical events, comedy, satire, and tragedy. Some of the notable playwrights of Hindi literature are Mohan Rakesh, Dharamvir Bharati, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Badal Sircar, and Mahesh Dattani .
- **Champu:** Champu is a unique genre of Hindi literature, which combines prose and poetry in a single composition. Champu is usually based on the epics, legends, and myths of India, and is written in a stylized and ornate language. Some of the famous examples of champu are Ramacharitamanas by Tulsidas, Padmavat by Malik Muhammad Jayasi, and Prithviraj Raso by Chand Bardai .

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- India is a diverse and pluralistic country with many religions and philosophies that have influenced its culture, society, and history.
- The major religions in India are Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, Islam, and Christianity, and each of them has its own distinctive beliefs, practices, and traditions.
- Hinduism is the oldest and most widespread religion in India, with about 80% of the population identifying as Hindus. Hinduism is not a single doctrine, but a collection of various schools of thought, sects, and movements that share some common themes, such as the concepts of karma, dharma,

reincarnation, and moksha (liberation from the cycle of birth and death). Hinduism also has a rich and diverse mythology, literature, art, and ritual, and worships a multitude of gods and goddesses, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Ganesha, Lakshmi, and Durga.

- Buddhism originated in India in the 6th century BCE, when Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha, attained enlightenment and taught the Four Noble Truths and the Eightfold Path to end suffering and achieve nirvana. Buddhism spread throughout Asia and beyond, and developed into various schools and traditions, such as Theravada, Mahayana, and Vajrayana. Buddhism emphasizes the cultivation of wisdom, compassion, and ethical conduct, and practices meditation, mindfulness, and moral precepts. Buddhism has about 7% of the population in India, mostly in the states of Ladakh, Sikkim, Arunachal Pradesh, and Maharashtra.
- Jainism is an ancient religion that teaches the principles of non-violence, non-attachment, and non-absolutism. Jainism believes that every living being has a soul that can attain liberation by following the three jewels of right knowledge, right faith, and right conduct. Jainism also practices strict vegetarianism, asceticism, and environmentalism, and respects the diversity of views and beliefs. Jainism has about 0.4% of the population in India, mostly in the states of Gujarat, Rajasthan, Maharashtra, and Karnataka.
- Sikhism is a monotheistic religion that was founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century CE, and is based on the teachings of the ten Sikh Gurus and the Guru Granth Sahib, the holy scripture. Sikhism believes in one God, who is the creator, sustainer, and destroyer of the universe, and who is accessible to all through the grace of the Guru. Sikhism also emphasizes the values of equality, service, justice, and honesty, and practices the five Ks, which are the symbols of Sikh identity: kesh (uncut hair), kangha (comb), kara (steel bracelet), kachera (cotton underwear), and kirpan (sword). Sikhism has about 2% of the population in India, mostly in the state of Punjab.
- Islam is the second-largest religion in India, with about 14% of the population identifying as Muslims. Islam is a monotheistic religion that was revealed by Allah to Prophet Muhammad in the 7th century CE, and is based on the teachings of the Quran, the holy book, and the Sunnah, the example of the Prophet. Islam believes in the five pillars of faith, which are the declaration of faith, prayer, charity, fasting, and pilgrimage, and the six articles of faith, which are the belief in Allah, angels, prophets, scriptures, judgment day, and divine decree. Islam also has various sects and schools of thought, such as Sunni, Shia, Sufi, and Ahmadiyya. Islam has a long and rich history in India, and has contributed to its culture, architecture, literature, and art.
- Christianity is the third-largest religion in India, with about 2.3% of the population identifying as Christians. Christianity is a monotheistic religion that was founded by Jesus Christ in the 1st century CE, and is based on the teachings of the Bible, the holy book, and the tradition of

the church. Christianity believes in the Trinity, which is the doctrine that God is one being in three persons: the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit. Christianity also believes in the incarnation, crucifixion, resurrection, and ascension of Jesus, and the salvation of humanity by grace through faith. Christianity has various denominations and branches, such as Catholic, Orthodox, Protestant, and Evangelical. Christianity was introduced to India by various missionaries and traders,

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley or Harappan civilization, which flourished from about 2500 BCE to 1500 BCE in the northwestern part of the Indian subcontinent.
- Pre-Vedic religion was a form of Hinduism that was different from the Vedic religion of the Indo-Aryan invaders who entered India around 1500 BCE and composed the sacred texts known as the Vedas .
- Pre-Vedic religion was based on the worship of various deities, such as a mother goddess, a horned god, a fertility god, and animal symbols, such as the bull, the buffalo, and the unicorn . Some of these deities and symbols may have influenced later Hinduism.
- Pre-Vedic religion also involved the practice of rituals, such as fire sacrifices, water offerings, and the use of seals and amulets, which may have been used for protection, communication, or identification .
- Pre-Vedic religion was largely non-Vedic in origin, and may have been influenced by the Agamas, which are ancient texts that deal with the worship of Shiva, Vishnu, and Devi. The Agamas are considered to be pre-Vedic or post-Vedic, depending on the date of their composition.
- Pre-Vedic religion was a complex and diverse system of beliefs and practices that reflected the culture and society of the Indus Valley civilization, which was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world .

Vedic Religion in India

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.
- The Vedas consist of four collections of hymns, rituals, and philosophical speculations: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedic religion was based on the worship of a number of gods, such as Indra, Agni, Soma, Varuna, and Mitra, who represented natural forces or aspects of cosmic order.

- The Vedic religion also involved the performance of sacrifices, such as the soma sacrifice and the fire sacrifice, which were meant to ensure the harmony between the human and the divine realms.
- The Vedic religion also developed the concepts of karma, reincarnation, and liberation, which later became central to Hinduism.
- The Vedic religion gradually evolved into Brahmanism, which emphasized the role of the Brahmins, or priests, as the mediators between the gods and the people.
- Brahmanism also developed the Upanishads, which are philosophical texts that explore the nature of the self, the supreme reality, and the relationship between them.
- Brahmanism eventually gave rise to various schools of Hinduism, such as Vedanta, Yoga, and Samkhya, which have different interpretations of the Vedic teachings.
- Hinduism is the major world religion that originated on the Indian sub-continent and comprises several and varied systems of philosophy, belief, and ritual.

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism started in India over 2,600 years ago as a way of life that had a potential of transforming a person.
- The founder of Buddhism was Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha, who was born in the 6th century BCE in the kingdom of Kapilavastu, near present-day Nepal .
- The Buddha attained enlightenment under a Bodhi tree in Bodhi Gaya, Bihar, after renouncing his princely life and practicing meditation for six years .
- The Buddha taught the Four Noble Truths and the Eightfold Path, which are the core teachings of Buddhism, to his first disciples in Sarnath, Uttar Pradesh .
- The Buddha also established the Sangha, or the community of monks and nuns, who followed his teachings and spread them to others .
- Buddhism spread from its place of origin in Magadha and Kosala throughout much of northern India, including the areas of Mathura and Ujjayini in the west, during its first century of existence.
- Buddhism also reached other parts of India and neighboring countries, such as Sri Lanka, Myanmar, Thailand, Cambodia, Laos, Vietnam, China, Tibet, Mongolia, Korea, Japan, and Central Asia, through trade, missionary activities, and cultural exchanges .
- Buddhism developed into various schools and traditions, such as Theravada, Mahayana, Vajrayana, Zen, Pure Land, and Tibetan Buddhism, each with its own doctrines, practices, and texts .
- Buddhism faced challenges and decline in India due to the rise of Hinduism, the invasions of foreign rulers, the persecution of Buddhists, and the loss of patronage and support from the kings and the people .

- Buddhism survived in some regions of India, such as the Himalayan region, southern India, and the border areas with Myanmar, where it is still practiced by some ethnic and tribal groups.
- Buddhism also experienced a revival in India in the 20th century, especially among the Dalits, who converted to Buddhism under the leadership of B.R. Ambedkar, a social reformer and the chief architect of the Indian Constitution .
- Buddhism is one of the important religions of South and South-Eastern Asian countries, and has influenced the art, culture, philosophy, and ethics of India and the world .

Jainism in India

- Jainism is an Indian religion that teaches the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things as much as possible.
- Jainism originated in India at least 2,500 years ago and is one of the world's oldest religions.
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to become liberated from the endless cycle of rebirth and to achieve an all-knowing state called moksha.
- Jains follow the teachings of 24 spiritual leaders called tirthankaras, the last of whom was Mahavira, who lived in the 6th century BCE.
- Jains practice five main principles: ahimsa (nonviolence), satya (truthfulness), asteya (non-stealing), brahmacharya (celibacy or chastity), and aparigraha (non-attachment or non-possessiveness).
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad), based on their views on asceticism, scriptures, and the status of women.
- Jains are a small but influential minority in India, constituting about 0.4% of the population, or about 4.5 million people.
- Jains are the most educated and affluent religious group in India, with high levels of literacy, urbanization, and participation in business and politics.
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste, which gives them more social and economic privileges than lower castes.
- Jainism has influenced Indian culture, philosophy, art, architecture, and literature, especially in the fields of nonviolence, vegetarianism, animal rights, and environmentalism .

Six System Indian Philosophy

The Six System Indian Philosophy refers to six schools of philosophical thought that originated in the Indian subcontinent. They are:

- **Nyaya:** The school of logic and epistemology, founded by Akshapada Gautama in the 2nd century BCE. It deals with the methods of acquiring valid knowledge and the criteria of truth. It also discusses topics such as

perception, inference, analogy, testimony, self-awareness, and the nature of the self, God, and liberation .

- **Vaisheshika:** The school of atomism and naturalism, attributed to Kanada Kashyapa in the 6th century BCE. It postulates that the universe is composed of six categories of substances: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence. It also proposes that atoms are the ultimate indivisible particles of matter, and that the law of karma governs the motion and interaction of atoms .
- **Samkhya:** The school of dualism and realism, attributed to Kapila in the 6th century BCE. It analyzes the principles of existence into two fundamental categories: purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter). It holds that the evolution of prakriti into various forms of matter and mind is caused by the proximity of purusha, and that the liberation of purusha from prakriti is achieved by the discrimination of the two .
- **Yoga:** The school of discipline and practice, associated with Patanjali in the 2nd century BCE. It is based on the Samkhya philosophy, but adds the concept of Ishvara (God) as the supreme purusha and the source of the sacred text, the Yoga Sutras. It prescribes an eightfold path of ethical conduct, physical postures, breath control, sensory withdrawal, concentration, meditation, and absorption, leading to the cessation of the fluctuations of the mind and the realization of the true self .
- **Purva Mimamsa:** The school of ritual exegesis and orthopraxy, founded by Jaimini in the 3rd century BCE. It is concerned with the interpretation and application of the Vedic texts, especially the Brahmanas and the Samhitas, which prescribe various rituals and sacrifices for the attainment of worldly and heavenly goals. It defends the authority and validity of the Vedas, and develops a sophisticated theory of language, meaning, and inference .
- **Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta:** The school of metaphysics and spirituality, based on the Upanishads, the concluding part of the Vedas. It is also known as Vedanta, meaning the end or the essence of the Vedas. It has various sub-schools, such as Advaita (non-dualism), Vishishtadvaita (qualified non-dualism), and Dvaita (dualism), which differ in their views on the nature and relation of Brahman (the supreme reality), Atman (the individual self), and the world. It aims at the realization of the identity or the difference of Brahman and Atman, and the liberation from the cycle of birth and death .

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who lived in the 8th century CE. He is regarded as the most influential exponent of the Advaita Vedanta school of philosophy, which is one of the six orthodox systems of Hindu philosophy.
- Advaita Vedanta is a non-dualistic system of thought that asserts that

the ultimate reality is Brahman, the supreme self, which is identical with the individual self (atman). Advaita Vedanta denies the existence of any duality or plurality in the world, and claims that all phenomena are illusory manifestations of Brahman.

- Shankaracharya traveled across India to propagate his teachings and establish monastic centers (mathas) in four corners of the country. He also wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, which are considered authoritative by Advaita Vedantins. He also composed many hymns and verses in praise of various deities and aspects of Hinduism.
- Shankaracharya's philosophy was challenged by other schools of Hindu philosophy, such as the Mimamsa, the Nyaya, the Vaisheshika, and the Bhedabheda. He also engaged in debates with Buddhist and Jain scholars, and defended the validity of the Vedas and the existence of God. He is credited with reviving and unifying Hinduism, and influencing the development of later Indian thought.
- Shankaracharya's legacy is preserved by the various monastic orders and lineages that trace their origin to him. The most prominent of these are the Dashanami Sampradaya, the Sringeri Sharada Peetham, the Kanchi Kamakoti Peetham, the Dwarka Sharada Peetham, and the Jyotirmath. His teachings and works are studied and revered by millions of Hindus across the world.

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

- Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent .
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, flexibility, synthesis, and acceptance of the authority of ancient philosophers .
- Indian philosophy is divided into two main categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) systems .
- Orthodox systems are those that accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, as the source of knowledge and truth .
- Unorthodox systems are those that reject the Vedas and rely on other sources of knowledge, such as reason, experience, or revelation .
- The six orthodox systems of Indian philosophy are: Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta .
- Nyaya is the school of logic and epistemology that analyzes the sources and methods of valid knowledge and inference .
- Vaisheshika is the school of atomism and metaphysics that postulates the existence of six categories of reality: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence .
- Samkhya is the school of dualism and cosmology that distinguishes be-

tween two fundamental principles: purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter)¹ .

- Yoga is the school of practice and discipline that aims at the liberation of the purusha from the bondage of prakriti through the eightfold path of ethical conduct, physical postures, breath control, sensory withdrawal, concentration, meditation, and absorption .
- Purva-Mimamsa is the school of ritual and exegesis that interprets the Vedic injunctions and prescribes the performance of sacrifices and duties as the means of attaining heaven and happiness .
- Vedanta is the school of metaphysics and theology that expounds the doctrine of the identity of the individual self (atman) and the supreme reality (brahman) as revealed in the Upanishads, the philosophical portions of the Vedas .
- The three unorthodox systems of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Charvaka .
- Buddhism is the religion and philosophy founded by Siddhartha Gautama, the Buddha, who taught the four noble truths and the eightfold path to overcome suffering and attain nirvana, the cessation of craving and ignorance .
- Jainism is the religion and philosophy founded by Mahavira, the Jina, who taught the doctrine of ahimsa (non-violence) and the theory of anekantavada (many-sidedness) to achieve liberation from the cycle of birth and death .
- Charvaka is the school of materialism and skepticism that denies the existence of anything beyond the four elements of earth, water, fire, and air, and rejects the notions of karma, rebirth, and liberation .
- Indian philosophies share many common themes, such as the concepts of dharma (duty), karma (action and its consequences), samsara (cycle of birth and death), moksha (liberation), and meditation .
- Indian philosophies also address various philosophical problems, such as the nature of the world, the nature of reality, the nature of knowledge, ethics, and the philosophy of religion .
- Indian philosophies have influenced and been influenced by other philosophical traditions, such as Greek, Persian, Chinese, Tibetan, and Islamic philosophies .

Heterodox Sects in India

- Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas and the Brahmanical rituals and social order. They emerged in the 6th century BCE as a reaction to the Vedic religion and its rigid caste system. They are also known as nāstika or “non-orthodox” schools of Indian philosophy.
- Some of the prominent heterodox sects are Jainism, Buddhism, Ājīvika, Cārvāka, and Ajñāna. They are classified as śramaṇa movements, which means “seekers” or “wanderers”. They advocated a life of asceticism, re-

nunciation, and ethical conduct as a means to attain liberation from the cycle of rebirth.

- Jainism was founded by Mahāvīra, the 24th and last Tirthankara or “ford-maker”. He taught the principles of ahimsā (non-violence), anekāntavāda (non-absolutism), and aparigraha (non-attachment). He also laid down the five vows of a Jain monk: non-violence, truthfulness, non-stealing, celibacy, and non-possession. Jainism is divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Śvetāmbara (white-clad), based on their differences in doctrine and practice.
- Buddhism was founded by Siddhārtha Gautama, who became known as the Buddha or “the awakened one”. He taught the four noble truths: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the cessation of suffering, and the truth of the path to the cessation of suffering. He also taught the eightfold path: right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration. Buddhism is divided into two major sects: Theravāda (the way of the elders) and Mahāyāna (the great vehicle), based on their differences in doctrine and practice.
- Ājīvika was founded by Makkhali Gosāla, a contemporary of Mahāvīra and the Buddha. He taught the doctrine of niyati (determinism), which means that everything is predetermined by fate and nothing can be changed by human effort. He also taught the theory of saṃsāra (transmigration), which means that the soul passes through 8.4 million forms of life in a cycle of 84,000 great aeons. Ājīvika was a popular sect in ancient India, but it declined and disappeared by the medieval period.
- Cārvāka was founded by Brhaspati, the mythical teacher of the gods. He taught the doctrine of lokāyata (materialism), which means that only the material world exists and nothing beyond it. He also taught the theory of svabhāva (nature), which means that everything is produced by its own nature and there is no need for a creator or a cause. Cārvāka was a radical sect that rejected the existence of the soul, the afterlife, karma, and liberation. It advocated a life of pleasure and enjoyment as the only goal of human existence.
- Ajñāna was founded by Sañjaya Belatṭhiputta, another contemporary of Mahāvīra and the Buddha. He taught the doctrine of agnosticism, which means that nothing can be known for certain and everything is doubtful. He also taught the theory of ekaṃsika (one-sidedness), which means that every proposition has only one side and there is no need for a counter-proposition. Ajñāna was a skeptical sect that suspended judgment on all matters and refused to commit to any position or view.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.

- The Bhakti movement in Hinduism refers to ideas and engagement that emerged in the medieval era on love and devotion to religious concepts built around one or more gods and goddesses.
- The Bhakti movement preached against the caste system using the local languages so that the message reached the masses. One who practices bhakti is called a bhakta.
- The Bhakti movement is believed to have originated in Tamil Nadu sometime around the 7th and 8th centuries and spread to other parts of India by the 12th century.
- The Bhakti movement was a cultural, social and religious revolution, the ramifications of which are felt to this day as the movement gained impetus, galvanised the nation in waves and manifested its influence in India's freedom struggle.
- The Bhakti movement emphasized the mutual intense emotional attachment and love of a devotee toward a personal god and of the god for the devotee. According to the Bhagavadgita, a Hindu religious text, the path of bhakti, or bhakti-marga, is superior to the two other religious approaches, the path of knowledge (jnana-marga) and the path of action (karma-marga).
- The Bhakti movement produced a rich literature of poetry, songs, stories and legends that expressed the devotion and love of the bhaktas. Some of the prominent bhakti saints and poets include Ramanuja, Basava, Ramananda, Kabir, Mirabai, Tulsidas, Surdas, Chaitanya, Tukaram, Guru Nanak and many others. They propagated the message of universal brotherhood, equality, compassion and harmony .

Sufi movement in India

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the direct experience of God through love, devotion, and self-purification.
- Sufism originated in the Middle East and Central Asia and spread to India through the Muslim invasions and migrations from the 8th to the 13th centuries.
- Sufis in India established various orders or silsilas, each with its own spiritual leader (sheikh, pir, or murshid), disciples (murids), and successors (khalifahs).
- Some of the prominent silsilas in India were Chishti, Suhrawardi, Qadiri, Naqshbandi, and Shattari.
- Sufis in India adopted many elements of Indian culture, such as music, poetry, dance, and languages, and influenced the development of Indian art and literature.
- Sufis in India also interacted with the Hindu and Sikh traditions and contributed to the growth of the Bhakti movement, which emphasized the personal and emotional relationship with God.
- Sufis in India were often revered by the masses as saints and miracle-workers, and their shrines (dargahs) became popular places of pilgrimage

and worship.

- Sufis in India also played a role in the political and social history of the subcontinent, sometimes supporting the Muslim rulers and sometimes opposing them, depending on their views and interests.
- Sufism in India declined in the 18th and 19th centuries due to the rise of orthodox and reformist movements within Islam, as well as the colonial and nationalist pressures.
- Sufism in India still survives today as a living tradition, with many followers and practitioners across the country and abroad.

Socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- The socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India was a response to the social, cultural and religious problems that emerged due to the colonial rule, the impact of western education and the influence of modern ideas.
- The movement aimed at reforming the Indian society from within by removing the evils of casteism, superstition, idolatry, polygamy, child marriage, sati, purdah and other social ills that hindered the progress and dignity of the people.
- The movement also sought to revive the ancient glory of India by emphasizing the rational and ethical aspects of Hinduism, Islam, Sikhism and Parsi religion, and by promoting a spirit of nationalism and patriotism among the masses.
- The movement was led by various reformers, thinkers, writers, social activists and religious leaders who founded different organizations, societies, samajas and movements to propagate their ideas and ideals. Some of the prominent ones are:
 - **Brahmo Samaj:** Founded by Raja Ram Mohan Roy in 1828, it was the first socio religious reform movement in India. It advocated monotheism, abolition of caste system, widow remarriage, women education, and social service. It also opposed idol worship, rituals, priesthood, and superstitions. It was later led by Debendranath Tagore, Keshab Chandra Sen, and Rabindranath Tagore.
 - **Arya Samaj:** Founded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati in 1875, it was a revivalist movement that aimed at restoring the purity and authority of the Vedas. It rejected idolatry, polytheism, rituals, caste system, child marriage, and untouchability. It also promoted the principles of swadeshi, swaraj, and swadharma. It established schools, colleges, orphanages, and widow homes to spread education and social welfare.
 - **Prarthana Samaj:** Founded by Dr. Atmaram Pandurang in 1867, it was a reformist movement that followed the ideals of Brahmo Samaj and Raja Ram Mohan Roy. It advocated monotheism, social equal-

ity, women education, widow remarriage, and abolition of caste system. It also opposed idol worship, animal sacrifice, and superstitions. It was supported by eminent personalities like M.G. Ranade, R.G. Bhandarkar, and N.G. Chandavarkar.

- **Ramakrishna Mission:** Founded by Swami Vivekananda in 1897, it was a spiritual and humanitarian movement that was inspired by the teachings of Sri Ramakrishna Paramahansa. It propagated the philosophy of Vedanta and the concept of universal brotherhood. It also engaged in various social service activities like education, health care, relief work, and rural development. It also promoted inter-religious harmony and cultural exchange.
- **Theosophical Society:** Founded by Madame H.P. Blavatsky and Colonel H.S. Olcott in 1875 in New York, it was a mystical and occult movement that aimed at forming a universal brotherhood of humanity and studying the ancient wisdom of the East and the West. It also advocated the revival of Hinduism, Buddhism, and other oriental religions. It was later led by Annie Besant, who also played an important role in the Indian freedom struggle.
- **Aligarh Movement:** Founded by Sir Syed Ahmed Khan in 1866, it was a reformist movement that aimed at modernizing the Muslim community in India. It emphasized the need for western education, scientific outlook, and social reforms among the Muslims. It also opposed the orthodoxy, superstition, and fanaticism that prevailed among the Muslims. It established the Muhammadan Anglo-Oriental College, which later became the Aligarh Muslim University.
- **Young Bengal Movement:** Founded by Henry Louis Vivian Derozio in 1828, it was a radical and intellectual movement that influenced the young students of Hindu College in Calcutta. It advocated the ideals of liberty, equality, and fraternity. It also challenged the authority of religion, tradition, and custom. It also supported the causes of women emancipation, social justice, and national awakening.
- **Sikh Reform Movement:** It was a movement that aimed at restoring the original purity and identity of Sikhism, which had been corrupted by the influence of Hinduism and Islam. It was led by various reformers and organizations like Baba Dayal Singh, Khalsa Diwan, Singh Sabha,

Modern religious practices in India

- India is a secular country with a diverse population that follows various religions, such as Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Buddhism, Jainism, Zoroastrianism, and others .
- Religion plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, influencing their culture, values, festivals, rituals, and social norms .
- Hinduism is the dominant religion of India, with around 80% of the popu-

lation identifying as Hindu. Hinduism is a diverse and complex faith that encompasses many sects, schools, and traditions. Some of the common practices of Hindus include worshiping various gods and goddesses, performing rituals and ceremonies, celebrating festivals, practicing yoga and meditation, and following ethical principles .

- Islam is the second-largest religion in India, with about 14% of the population adhering to it. Islam is a monotheistic faith that follows the teachings of Prophet Muhammad and the Quran. Some of the common practices of Muslims include praying five times a day, fasting during Ramadan, giving alms to the poor, performing pilgrimage to Mecca, and observing dietary and dress codes .
- Christianity is the third-largest religion in India, with about 2% of the population following it. Christianity is a monotheistic faith that follows the teachings of Jesus Christ and the Bible. Some of the common practices of Christians include attending church services, celebrating festivals such as Christmas and Easter, reading and studying the Bible, and participating in sacraments such as baptism and communion .
- Sikhism is the fourth-largest religion in India, with about 2% of the population belonging to it. Sikhism is a monotheistic faith that follows the teachings of Guru Nanak and the Guru Granth Sahib. Some of the common practices of Sikhs include wearing the five Ks (kesh, kanga, kara, kachera, and kirpan), reciting the daily prayers, visiting the gurdwara, and serving the community .
- Buddhism is the fifth-largest religion in India, with about 1% of the population adhering to it. Buddhism is a non-theistic faith that follows the teachings of Gautama Buddha and the Four Noble Truths. Some of the common practices of Buddhists include following the Eightfold Path, meditating, chanting, observing the five precepts, and venerating the Buddha and other enlightened beings .
- Jainism is the sixth-largest religion in India, with about 0.4% of the population following it. Jainism is a non-theistic faith that follows the teachings of Mahavira and the principle of ahimsa (non-violence). Some of the common practices of Jains include practicing asceticism, observing the five vows, fasting, performing rituals, and respecting all living beings .
- Zoroastrianism is a minority religion in India, with a few thousand adherents. Zoroastrianism is a monotheistic faith that follows the teachings of Zoroaster and the Avesta. Some of the common practices of Zoroastrians include worshiping Ahura Mazda, the supreme god, performing fire rituals, wearing the sudreh and kusti, and disposing of the dead in towers of silence .
- India's religious groups share several religious practices and beliefs, such as belief in reincarnation, karma, dharma, and the sacredness of the cow. India's religious diversity also leads to interreligious dialogue, cooperation, and conflict .

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

This module covers the following topics:

- **Astronomy in India:** The ancient Indian astronomers made significant contributions to the fields of observational astronomy, mathematical astronomy, cosmology, and astrology. Some of the notable achievements include the discovery of the heliocentric model, the calculation of the sidereal year, the estimation of the diameter of the Earth, the concept of zero, and the use of decimal system and place value notation .
- **Chemistry in India:** The ancient Indian chemists developed various techniques and methods for the extraction, purification, and synthesis of metals, minerals, dyes, medicines, perfumes, and cosmetics. They also invented the process of distillation, fermentation, calcination, sublimation, and crystallization. Some of the important works in this field are Rasaratnasamuccaya, Rasendramangala, and Rasarnava .
- **Mathematics in India:** The ancient Indian mathematicians made remarkable contributions to the fields of arithmetic, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, and calculus. They introduced the concepts of zero, infinity, negative numbers, fractions, irrational numbers, and algebraic notation. They also developed theorems and formulas for solving quadratic and cubic equations, finding the area of a triangle, calculating the value of pi, and approximating the sine and cosine functions .
- **Physics in India:** The ancient Indian physicists developed various theories and models to explain the nature of matter, energy, motion, force, gravity, light, sound, and magnetism. They also invented devices and instruments for measuring time, weight, length, and temperature. Some of the influential works in this field are Vaisheshika Sutra, Nyaya Sutra, Sankhya Karika, and Yoga Sutra .
- **Agriculture in India:** The ancient Indian agriculturists developed sophisticated methods and practices for cultivating crops, irrigating fields, improving soil fertility, and preventing pests and diseases. They also domesticated various animals and plants for food, clothing, and medicine. Some of the important works in this field are Krishi Parashara, Vrikshayurveda, and Surapala's Vrikshayurveda .
- **Medicine in India:** The ancient Indian physicians developed a holistic system of medicine known as Ayurveda, which means "the science of life". Ayurveda is based on the principles of balance, harmony, and prevention. It uses various therapies and treatments such as diet, herbs, massage, yoga, meditation, and surgery. Some of the famous works in this field are Charaka Samhita, Sushruta Samhita, and Ashtanga Hridaya .
- **Metallurgy in India:** The ancient Indian metallurgists mastered the art and science of producing and working with metals such as iron, copper, bronze, gold, silver, and steel. They also invented the process of zinc smelting, the technique of wootz steel making, and the art of damascene

steel making. Some of the remarkable examples of Indian metallurgy are the iron pillar of Delhi, the bronze statue of Nataraja, and the steel sword of Tipu Sultan .

- Geography in India: The ancient Indian geographers studied the physical features, climate, flora, fauna, and human settlements of the Earth. They also mapped the continents, oceans, rivers, mountains, and islands of the world. They used various units and methods for measuring distance, direction, and elevation. Some of the notable works in this field are Brihat Samhita, Panchasiddhantika, and Siddhanta Shiromani .
- Biology in India: The ancient Indian biologists explored the diversity, structure, function, and classification of living organisms. They also studied the concepts of heredity, evolution, adaptation, and ecology. They used various tools and techniques for observing, dissecting, and experimenting with animals and plants. Some of the influential works in this field are Jivashastra, Sarira Sthana, and Vaisesika Sutra .
- Harappan Technologies: The Harappan civilization, also known as the Indus Valley civilization, was one of the earliest and most advanced urban civilizations in the world. It flourished from 2500 BCE to 1900 BCE in the northwest of India and Pakistan

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in India has a long history that dates back to the pre-historic times. Some of the earliest references to astronomy are found in the Rig Veda, which are dated 2000 BC.
- Astronomy in India developed as a discipline of Vedanga, or one of the “auxiliary disciplines” associated with the study of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism. The Vedanga texts contain rules for tracking the motions of the Sun, Moon, planets and stars for ritual and calendrical purposes.
- Astronomy in India also had outside influences from Greece and other nations from the third century BCE onwards. However, the basic structure of Indian astronomy and the major parameters were India’s own.
- Some of the notable Indian astronomers of ancient times include Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Lalla, Sripati and Bhaskaracharya. They made significant contributions to various aspects of astronomy, such as planetary models, trigonometry, eclipses, cosmology, heliocentrism and mathematics .
- Astronomy in India was also closely linked with astrology, religion, philosophy and literature. Many astronomical concepts and terms were derived from the mythological stories and symbols of Hinduism. For example, the names of the planets are based on the names of the gods and goddesses, and the nakshatras or lunar mansions are based on the legends of the heroes and sages.

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, the language in vogue. Rasayana derived its name from **Rasa**, which means **extract**, maybe from roots, leaves, and stems of plants .
- Ancient India's development in chemistry was not confined but found development in a variety of practical activities, such as metallurgy, medicine, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, and tanning .
- Chemical techniques in India can be traced back all the way to the Indus valley or Harappan civilisation (3rd millennium BCE). They used copper, bronze, lead, and tin, and practiced metallurgy.
- The earliest texts that deal with chemistry in India are the four Vedas, especially the Rig Veda and the Atharva Veda, which contain hymns and rituals related to fire, metals, plants, and medicines.
- The most important source of chemical knowledge in ancient India was the **Ayurveda**, the science of life and health, which originated around the 6th century BCE. Ayurveda was based on the theory of five elements (**Panchamahabhuta**): earth, water, fire, air, and ether, and their interactions with the three humors (**Tridosha**): bile, phlegm, and wind.
- Ayurveda developed a sophisticated system of pharmacology, which involved the use of various plant, animal, and mineral substances for the treatment of diseases. Some of the substances used were mercury, sulfur, arsenic, iron, copper, gold, silver, zinc, tin, lead, antimony, and salts.
- Another branch of chemistry in ancient India was **Rasashastra**, the science of alchemy or transmutation, which emerged around the 1st century CE. Rasashastra was influenced by the Greek and Chinese alchemical traditions, and aimed at finding the **Philosopher's Stone (Parasmani)**, which could turn base metals into gold, and the **Elixir of Life (Amrita)**, which could confer immortality.
- Rasashastra involved the use of various apparatus, such as crucibles, furnaces, retorts, alembics, and distillation units, and various processes, such as calcination, sublimation, fusion, liquefaction, and precipitation, to produce various **Bhasmas** (ashes), **Rasas** (mercurial compounds), and **Lo-has** (metallic compounds).
- Some of the famous chemists and alchemists in ancient India were **Nagarjuna** (2nd century CE), who wrote the **Rasendramangala**, a treatise on mercury and its compounds, and discovered various methods of extraction, purification, and amalgamation of metals; **Kanada** (6th century CE), who wrote the **Vaisheshika Sutra**, a philosophical text that proposed the atomic theory of matter; **Charaka** (2nd century CE) and **Sushruta** (4th century CE), who wrote the **Charaka Samhita** and the **Sushruta Samhita**, respectively, two of the most authoritative texts on Ayurvedic medicine and surgery; and **Vagbhata** (7th century CE), who wrote the **Ashtanga Hridaya**, a comprehensive text on Ayurveda that incorporated the teachings of Charaka and Sushruta.
- Chemistry in ancient India was a rich and diverse field of knowledge, that

contributed to the advancement of science, technology, medicine, and culture in India and beyond .

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- Mathematics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE) and continuing until the colonial period (18th-19th centuries CE).
- Mathematics in India was considered as one of the highest sciences, and was closely linked to astronomy, astrology, religion, philosophy, and art.
- Mathematics in India was also a very practical science, as it was used for various purposes such as commerce, architecture, engineering, medicine, and warfare.
- Some of the main achievements of mathematics in India include:
 - The development of the decimal place-value system and the concept of zero, which revolutionized arithmetic and algebra.
 - The discovery of various algebraic identities and methods, such as the quadratic formula, the solution of indeterminate equations, and the binomial theorem.
 - The invention of trigonometry, including the sine, cosine, and tangent functions, and the use of trigonometric tables and formulas for astronomical calculations.
 - The study of geometry, including the measurement of circles, triangles, and solids, and the approximation of pi and square roots.
 - The exploration of negative numbers, fractions, irrational numbers, and infinite series, and their applications to arithmetic and algebra.
 - The formulation of combinatorics, probability, and statistics, and their use for analyzing patterns, permutations, and combinations.
- Some of the prominent mathematicians of India include:
 - Aryabhata (476-550 CE), who wrote the *Aryabhatiya*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which introduced the decimal place-value system, the concept of zero, the approximation of pi, and the solution of linear and quadratic equations.
 - Brahmagupta (598-668 CE), who wrote the *Brahmasphutasiddhanta*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which introduced the rules for operating with zero and negative numbers, the solution of indeterminate equations, and the properties of cyclic quadrilaterals.
 - Bhaskara II (1114-1185 CE), who wrote the *Siddhanta Siromani*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which introduced the binomial theorem, the derivative, and the Rolle's theorem, and solved various problems in algebra, geometry, and trigonometry.
 - Varahamihira (505-587 CE), who wrote the *Panchasiddhantika*, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which summarized the five main schools of Indian astronomy, and introduced the sine and cosine functions, and the use of trigonometric tables.

Physics in India and Ancient India

- Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy, and the interactions between them.
- Physics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic era, when the ancient Indian sages and scholars made pioneering contributions to astronomy and basic physics, most of which have now been vindicated by rigorous theory and/or experiments.
- Some of the remarkable achievements of physics in ancient India are:
 - The concept of energy and mass equivalence, as expressed in the Upanishads, which predates Einstein's famous equation by thousands of years.
 - The idea that both heat and light radiation are a manifestation of energy, and that light comprises discrete particles, as proposed by the Vaisheshika school of philosophy, which anticipated the modern theories of thermodynamics and quantum mechanics .
 - The notion of wave-particle duality, as suggested by the Nyaya school of philosophy, which recognized that a particle also has a wave nature, and that radiation has wave properties.
 - The discovery of the law of gravitation, as attributed to the mathematician and astronomer Bhaskara II, who stated that the earth attracts a body with a force proportional to its mass.
 - The development of hydrostatics, as demonstrated by the mathematician and engineer Bhoja, who described the principles of buoyancy, fluid pressure, and Archimedes' principle.
 - The invention of the zero, the decimal system, and the place value system, as well as the use of algebra, trigonometry, and geometry, as pioneered by the mathematicians Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara I, and Bhaskara II, among others, who laid the foundations of modern mathematics and physics .
 - The advancement of astronomy, as evidenced by the accurate calculations of the solar and lunar eclipses, the heliocentric model of the solar system, the estimation of the diameter of the earth, the distance between the earth and the moon, and the circumference of the earth, as made by the astronomers Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, and Bhaskara II, among others, who challenged the prevailing geocentric and flat-earth views of the world .
 - The exploration of atomic theory, as elaborated by the Vaisheshika and Nyaya schools of philosophy, who postulated that all matter is composed of indivisible and indestructible atoms, which combine in different ways to form complex substances, and that atoms have different properties such as shape, size, motion, and number .
 - The formulation of the concept of shunya or emptiness, as expounded by the Buddhist and Jain schools of philosophy, who argued that shunya is not a mere absence of existence, but a potentiality of existence, and that shunya is the ultimate reality beyond the conventional

categories of being and non-being .

- Physics in India has continued to flourish in the modern era, with notable contributions in the fields of nuclear physics, particle physics, astrophysics, cosmology, quantum mechanics, and nanotechnology, among others, by eminent scientists such as C.V. Raman, S.N. Bose, M.N. Saha, H.J. Bhabha, V. Ramakrishnan, A.P.J. Abdul Kalam, and R. Chidambaram, among others.
- Physics in India has also been influenced by the cultural and philosophical traditions of the country, which have fostered a spirit of curiosity, creativity, and innovation, as well as a respect for nature and the cosmos, and a quest for the ultimate truth.

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

- Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important activities in human history. It is the cultivation of plants and animals for food, fiber, fuel, medicine and other products.
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Neolithic period (around 9000 BCE) when the first domestication of plants and animals occurred in the Indus Valley Civilization .
- Some of the earliest crops grown in India were wheat, barley, rice, millets, pulses, sesame, mustard, cotton, sugarcane and indigo . Some of the earliest animals domesticated in India were cattle, sheep, goats, pigs, horses, elephants, chickens and dogs .
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India was influenced by various factors, such as climate, geography, soil, water, culture, religion, trade and politics. Different regions of India had different agricultural systems and practices, depending on their local conditions and needs.
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India was also influenced by various external contacts and exchanges, such as with the Mesopotamian, Egyptian, Persian, Greek, Roman, Chinese, Arab, Turkish, Mongol and European civilizations. These contacts and exchanges brought new crops, animals, techniques, knowledge and ideas to India and vice versa .
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India was not only a source of livelihood, but also a way of life, a form of art, a part of culture, a basis of economy, a means of social organization, a mode of worship and a symbol of identity. Agriculture in India and Ancient India was deeply connected to the beliefs, values, traditions, customs, festivals, rituals, myths, legends, literature, philosophy, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, architecture, art and music of the Indian people .
- Agriculture in India and Ancient India was also a subject of study, research, innovation, experimentation, improvement, documentation, classification, standardization, codification, dissemination and preservation. Agriculture in India and Ancient India was developed and refined by various sages, scholars, scientists, teachers, farmers, kings, emperors, mer-

chants, travelers, explorers, missionaries, invaders, colonizers and reformers over the centuries .

- Agriculture in India and Ancient India was a dynamic and evolving process, responding to the changing needs, challenges, opportunities and aspirations of the Indian people and the world. Agriculture in India and Ancient India was a source of pride, glory, wealth, power, prosperity, stability, security, harmony, diversity, unity, continuity and change for the Indian civilization .

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Medicine in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE) and influenced by various cultural and religious traditions.
- The most ancient and comprehensive system of Indian medicine is Ayurveda, which means “the science of life”. Ayurveda is based on the concept of balance among the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha), which are the vital energies that govern the body and mind.
- Ayurveda covers various aspects of health and disease, such as diagnosis, prevention, treatment, pharmacology, surgery, and rejuvenation. Ayurveda uses natural substances, such as herbs, minerals, metals, and animal products, as well as diet, lifestyle, yoga, and meditation, to restore and maintain health.
- Some of the famous ancient Indian physicians and surgeons who contributed to the development of Ayurveda are Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, and Dhanvantari. Charaka compiled the Charaka Samhita, which is considered the oldest and most authoritative text on Ayurveda. Sushruta wrote the Sushruta Samhita, which is the main source of knowledge on ancient Indian surgery. He described various surgical procedures, instruments, and techniques, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract extraction, and caesarean section.
- Another system of Indian medicine that developed in the south, especially in the Tamil region, is Siddha, which means “perfected”. Siddha is similar to Ayurveda in its principles and practices, but it also incorporates elements of alchemy, yoga, and tantra. Siddha uses metals and minerals, such as mercury, gold, and iron, along with herbs, to prepare medicines that are believed to have miraculous powers. Some of the famous Siddha physicians are Agastya, Thirumoolar, and Bogar.
- India also has other traditional systems of medicine, such as Unani, which is derived from the Greek and Arabic medicine, and Homeopathy, which is based on the principle of “like cures like”. India also has various folk and tribal healing traditions, such as the use of plants, animals, and spirits, to treat various ailments.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from ores and alloys. Metallurgy in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Chalcolithic period (around 3000 BCE) and continuing until the medieval times. Some of the main features and achievements of metallurgy in India and Ancient India are:

- Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans in India, as evidenced by copper artefacts from the Harappan civilization (around 2500-1900 BCE) and copper ore samples from ancient mine pits at Khetri in Rajasthan. Copper was also used to make bronze, an alloy of copper and tin, which was widely used for making tools, weapons, ornaments and statues.
- Iron was another important metal in India, which was introduced around 1800 BCE, possibly from West Asia or Central Asia. Iron smelting was practiced on a large scale by the early 13th century BCE, using charcoal as fuel and clay as flux. Iron was used for making agricultural implements, weapons, armor, nails, needles, coins and other items. Iron was also exported to other regions, such as the Roman Empire, China and Southeast Asia.
- Zinc was a unique metal that was extracted and refined in India as early as the 4th to 3rd century BCE, using a sophisticated distillation technique that involved heating zinc ore in a closed vessel and condensing the zinc vapor in a separate vessel. Zinc was used for making brass, an alloy of copper and zinc, which was used for making coins, utensils, mirrors, ornaments and other items. Zinc was also exported to China, where it was used for making gunpowder and printing.
- Gold and silver were precious metals that were valued for their beauty and rarity. Gold and silver were obtained from placer deposits, river beds, mines and trade. Gold and silver were used for making jewelry, coins, vessels, sculptures and other items. Gold and silver were also used for making alloys, such as electrum (gold and silver), tumbaga (gold and copper) and panchaloha (gold, silver, copper, iron and zinc).
- Mercury was another metal that was known and used in India since ancient times. Mercury was obtained from cinnabar, a red mineral that contains mercury sulfide. Mercury was used for making amalgams, mixtures of mercury and other metals, such as gold, silver, tin and lead. Mercury was also used for medicinal, alchemical and ritual purposes, such as making elixirs, transmuting metals and worshipping Shiva.
- Tin and lead were two metals that were used for making alloys, such as bronze, brass, pewter and solder. Tin and lead were obtained from cassiterite and galena, respectively. Tin and lead were also used for making utensils, vessels, pipes, bullets and other items.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India was a remarkable achievement that demonstrated the skill, knowledge and innovation of the Indian metalworkers.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India also contributed to the economic, cultural and scientific development of the Indian subcontinent and beyond.

Geography in India and Ancient India

- India is a diverse country with various landforms, climates, and natural resources. It is the seventh-largest country in the world by area, and the second-most populous country with over 1.3 billion people.
- India is located in South Asia, bordered by the Indian Ocean, the Arabian Sea, and the Bay of Bengal. It shares land borders with Pakistan, China, Nepal, Bhutan, Bangladesh, and Myanmar.
- India has four major geographical regions: the Himalayas, the Indo-Gangetic Plain, the Peninsular Plateau, and the Coastal Plains.
- The Himalayas are the highest mountain range in the world, and form a natural barrier between India and the rest of Asia. They also influence the climate and rainfall patterns of India, as they block the cold winds from the north and trap the moist monsoon winds from the south.
- The Indo-Gangetic Plain is a fertile and densely populated region that covers most of northern and eastern India. It is formed by the alluvial deposits of the Indus, Ganges, and Brahmaputra rivers, which are among the longest and most important rivers in India.
- The Peninsular Plateau is a large and ancient landmass that occupies most of central and southern India. It is composed of igneous and metamorphic rocks, and has a rich mineral wealth. It is also home to several hill ranges, such as the Western Ghats, the Eastern Ghats, the Vindhya, and the Satpura.
- The Coastal Plains are narrow strips of land that run along the eastern and western coasts of India. They are formed by the erosion of the peninsular plateau and the deposition of sediments by the rivers and the sea. They have a tropical climate and support a variety of crops, such as rice, coconut, and spices.
- In ancient times, the geography of India was a little different than what it is today. The Indian subcontinent was not fully separated from the rest of Asia, and was connected by a land bridge to Africa and Madagascar. The sea level was also lower, and the coastline was farther away from the present one.
- The geography of India played a significant role in the development of ancient civilizations, cultures, and religions. The Indus River Valley Civilization, also known as the Harappan Civilization, was one of the earliest and most advanced urban civilizations in the world. It flourished from 3300 to 1300 BCE in the northwest of India, and had a sophisticated system of urban planning, sanitation, trade, and writing.
- The geography of India also influenced the spread of ideas, beliefs, and practices across the region and beyond. The Vedic culture, which emerged around 1500 BCE in the Indo-Gangetic Plain, gave rise to Hinduism, the oldest and third-largest religion in the world. Buddhism and Jainism, two

other major religions, also originated in India and spread to other parts of Asia through trade and missionary activities.

- The geography of India also shaped the political and economic history of the subcontinent. India was divided into many kingdoms and empires, such as the Mauryan, Gupta, Mughal, and British, that ruled over different regions and periods. India also had extensive trade and cultural contacts with other civilizations, such as the Mesopotamian, Egyptian, Greek, Roman, Chinese, and Persian.

Biology in India and Ancient India

- Biology is the science of life that studies living organisms and their interactions with each other and their environment.
- India has a rich and ancient tradition of biological knowledge that dates back to the Vedic period (3000-800 BCE).
- The Vedic literature contains records of 740 plants and 250 animals, indicating that the Vedic people observed and classified the natural world around them.
- The Vedas also mention concepts such as the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether), the three humors (vata, pitta, and kapha), and the theory of karma and reincarnation, which influenced the development of Indian medicine and philosophy.
- The Ayurveda, the science of life and longevity, is one of the oldest systems of medicine in the world. It originated in the Vedic period and was codified by Charaka and Sushruta in the 1st millennium BCE. It covers topics such as anatomy, physiology, pathology, pharmacology, surgery, and psychology.
- The Charaka Samhita, the main text of Ayurveda, describes the structure and function of the human body, including the circulatory, digestive, respiratory, nervous, and reproductive systems. It also mentions the concept of genes (beeja), chromosomes (beejagana), and inheritance (beejotpatti).
- The Sushruta Samhita, another text of Ayurveda, is considered the oldest treatise on surgery. It describes various surgical procedures, instruments, and techniques, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, caesarean section, and anesthesia. It also classifies human beings into seven types based on their physical and mental characteristics.
- The ancient Indians also made significant contributions to the fields of botany, zoology, and ecology. They classified plants and animals into various categories based on their morphology, physiology, behavior, and utility. They also studied the interrelationships between living beings and their environment, and the effects of seasons, climate, and geography on them.
- Some of the notable ancient Indian biologists include Varahamihira, who wrote the Brihat Samhita, a compendium of natural history and astronomy; Patanjali, who wrote the Mahabhashya, a commentary on grammar and linguistics; and Kautilya, who wrote the Arthashastra, a treatise on

statecraft and economics.

- The ancient Indians also had a keen interest in the origin and diversity of life. They proposed various theories of creation, evolution, and migration, based on their religious, philosophical, and historical perspectives. They also recognized the role of hybridization, mutation, and adaptation in the generation of new forms of life.
- The ancient DNA (aDNA) research is a new and emerging field that uses molecular techniques to analyze the genetic material of ancient human remains. It can provide insights into the ancestry, migration, and population history of ancient people .
- The aDNA research in India has revealed that the Indian population is the result of multiple ancient migrations and admixtures of different groups of people, such as the Ancestral North Indians (ANI), the Ancestral South Indians (ASI), the Indo-Aryans, the Dravidians, the Austro-Asiatics, and the Tibeto-Burmans .
- The aDNA research has also challenged some of the conventional views on the origin and spread of the Indus Valley Civilization (IVC), the Indo-Aryan languages, and the caste system in India. It has shown that the IVC people were genetically diverse and had links with both the West and the East, that the Indo-Aryan languages were not brought by a single wave of invaders but by multiple migrations and interactions, and that the caste system was not rigid and fixed but fluid and dynamic .
- The aDNA research in India is still in its infancy and faces many challenges, such as the scarcity and preservation of ancient samples, the contamination and degradation of ancient DNA, the ethical and legal issues of obtaining and using ancient material, and the interpretation and integration of genetic data with other sources of evidence, such as archaeology, linguistics, and history.
- The aDNA research in India has the potential to shed new light on the biological and cultural diversity of the Indian subcontinent and its connections with the rest of the world. It can also help to reconstruct the genetic

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

- The Harappan civilization was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world, flourishing in the Indus River Valley from about 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE.
- The Harappans developed various technologies and crafts, such as metallurgy, seal carving, pottery, weaving, irrigation, drainage, and sanitation .
- Some of the notable achievements of the Harappan civilization are:
 - Metallurgy: The Harappans used copper, bronze, lead, and tin to make tools, weapons, ornaments, and vessels. They also knew how

- to alloy copper and tin to produce bronze, which was harder and more durable than copper .
- Seal carving: The Harappans carved seals out of steatite, a soft stone, and engraved them with various motifs, such as animals, plants, geometric patterns, and a script that has not been deciphered yet. The seals were used for trade, administration, and ritual purposes .
- Pottery: The Harappans made pottery of various shapes, sizes, and colors, using the wheel and the kiln. They decorated their pottery with painted designs, such as geometric patterns, animals, and plants. The pottery was used for domestic and commercial purposes .
- Weaving: The Harappans wove cotton and wool into fabrics, using the spindle and the loom. They also dyed their fabrics with natural colors, such as indigo, madder, and turmeric. The fabrics were used for clothing, bedding, and trade .
- Irrigation: The Harappans built wells, canals, reservoirs, and dams to harness the water of the Indus River and its tributaries for agriculture and domestic use. They grew crops such as wheat, barley, rice, millet, peas, sesame, and cotton .
- Drainage: The Harappans constructed elaborate drainage systems to keep their cities clean and hygienic. They built brick-lined drains, covered with stone slabs, that ran along the streets and connected to larger sewers. They also had bathrooms, toilets, and soak pits in their houses .
- Sanitation: The Harappans maintained a high standard of sanitation and public health in their cities. They had public baths, such as the Great Bath at Mohenjo-daro, where people could wash and perform rituals. They also had garbage chutes, latrines, and cesspools to dispose of waste .
- The Harappan civilization was a remarkable example of technological innovation and urban planning in ancient India and the world.

Water Management in India and Ancient India

- Water management is the planning, development, distribution, and use of water resources for various purposes such as irrigation, drinking, sanitation, industry, energy, and ecology.
- India is a country with diverse climatic conditions, topography, and hydrology, which pose various challenges and opportunities for water management.
- India has a long history of water management, dating back to the ancient civilizations of Harappa and Vedic India, which developed sophisticated hydraulic structures, water harvesting systems, and hydrologic knowledge.
- Some of the traditional water management systems in India are:

- Stepwells: These are wells or ponds in which the water is reached by descending a set of steps. They are often architecturally elaborate and serve as sources of water, social spaces, and cultural symbols. Stepwells are found mainly in the arid regions of Gujarat and Rajasthan, where they help to conserve and store water during the dry season.
 - Tanks: These are artificial reservoirs that collect and store rainwater or runoff from streams and rivers. They are usually constructed by building earthen embankments or stone walls across low-lying areas. Tanks are widely used for irrigation, domestic use, and religious purposes in various parts of India, especially in the south and east.
 - Bawris: These are circular or rectangular underground wells that are lined with stone or brick and have steps leading to the water level. They are similar to stepwells, but are smaller and deeper. Bawris are mainly found in the northern and central regions of India, where they provide water for drinking and washing.
 - Kunds: These are small pits or tanks that collect rainwater from rooftops or catchment areas. They are usually covered with a dome or a lid to prevent evaporation and contamination. Kunds are common in the desert areas of Rajasthan and Gujarat, where they provide water for domestic and livestock use.
 - Khadins: These are earthen dams that are built across the slopes of hills or plateaus to capture the runoff from the monsoon rains. They create a large catchment area behind the dam, where the water percolates into the soil and recharges the groundwater. Khadins are used for growing crops in the arid regions of Rajasthan.
 - Ahar-pynes: These are traditional irrigation systems that consist of ahar (a reservoir) and pyne (a canal). The ahar collects the water from a river or a stream, and the pyne distributes it to the fields through a network of channels. Ahar-pynes are prevalent in the eastern state of Bihar, where they support the cultivation of rice and other crops.
- The ancient Indians had a profound understanding of the hydrologic cycle, the rainfall patterns, the groundwater flow, and the river dynamics. They also developed various methods of water measurement, water quality assessment, and water treatment.
 - The ancient Indians also had a holistic and spiritual view of water, which they considered as a sacred and vital element of life. They revered the rivers, lakes, and springs as manifestations of the divine, and performed various rituals and ceremonies to honor and protect them. They also practiced water conservation, water sharing, and water ethics as part of their culture and religion.
 - The modern water management in India faces many challenges such as population growth, urbanization, industrialization, climate change, pollu-

tion, and overexploitation of water resources. There is a need to adopt integrated, sustainable, and participatory approaches to water management, which can learn from the ancient wisdom and practices of water management in India.

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textile technology is the art and science of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and use, dating back to prehistoric times. India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and weave it into cloth, as well as to dye and print fabrics with various colors and patterns.
- Some of the earliest evidence of textile technology in India comes from the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1500 BCE), which produced fine cotton fabrics, woolen textiles, and silk. The Indus people also used various techniques of spinning, weaving, dyeing, printing, and embroidery to create diverse and sophisticated textiles.
- Textile technology in India continued to develop and flourish in the subsequent periods, such as the Vedic period (1500-500 BCE), the Mauryan and Sunga period (321-187 BCE), the Kushan period (30-375 CE), the Gupta period (320-550 CE), and the post-Gupta period (550-1200 CE). Each period had its own distinctive styles and innovations in textile production and use, influenced by the cultural, religious, political, and economic factors of the time.
- Some of the notable achievements and contributions of textile technology in India and ancient India are:
 - The invention of the charkha (spinning wheel) and the takli (spindle) for spinning cotton and wool fibers into yarns.
 - The use of various types of looms, such as the horizontal loom, the vertical loom, the pit loom, and the draw loom, for weaving different kinds of fabrics, such as muslin, calico, chintz, brocade, jamdani, and ikat.
 - The development of various methods of dyeing and printing fabrics, such as tie-dyeing, batik, block printing, resist printing, and mordant dyeing, using natural dyes derived from plants, animals, and minerals.
 - The creation of various patterns and motifs on fabrics, such as floral, geometric, animal, human, and divine figures, reflecting the artistic, aesthetic, and symbolic values of the society.
 - The export of textiles to various regions of the world, such as the Middle East, Europe, Africa, and Southeast Asia, through trade routes such as the Silk Road and the Indian Ocean trade network. Indian

textiles were highly valued and sought after by foreign merchants and consumers for their quality, variety, and beauty.

- The influence of textile technology on other aspects of Indian culture, such as literature, art, architecture, religion, and social customs. Textiles were used for various purposes, such as clothing, bedding, curtains, carpets, banners, flags, and ritual objects. Textiles also played a role in expressing the identity, status, and wealth of the wearer, as well as the beliefs, values, and traditions of the community.

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- Writing technology is the use of tools and methods to create, record, and transmit written communication.
- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, dating back to the ancient Indus Valley Civilization (IVC) that flourished from 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- The IVC developed the Indus script, which is the earliest form of writing known in the Indian subcontinent. The Indus script consists of about 400 signs that are mostly pictographic and geometric. The script was used to write on seals, tablets, pottery, and other objects. The Indus script has not been deciphered yet, and its linguistic affiliation is unknown.
- After the decline of the IVC, writing technology in India was influenced by various cultural and linguistic contacts, such as the Aryan invasion, the Mauryan empire, the Kushan empire, the Gupta empire, the Islamic invasions, and the British colonization.
- One of the most influential writing systems in India was the Brahmi script, which was developed around the 3rd century BCE by the Mauryan emperor Ashoka. The Brahmi script is a semialphabetic script that represents both consonants and vowels. The Brahmi script was used to write various languages, such as Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, and Tamil. The Brahmi script is the ancestor of most modern Indic scripts, such as Devanagari, Bengali, Gujarati, Gurmukhi, Kannada, Malayalam, Oriya, Sinhala, Tamil, Telugu, and Tibetan.
- Another important writing system in India was the Kharosthi script, which was derived from the Aramaic script around the 4th century BCE. The Kharosthi script is a syllabic script that represents consonants and vowels separately. The Kharosthi script was used to write various languages, such as Gandhari, Prakrit, Sanskrit, and Bactrian. The Kharosthi script was mainly used in the northwestern regions of India, such as Gandhara and Bactria. The Kharosthi script was gradually replaced by the Brahmi script and became extinct by the 4th century CE.
- Writing technology in India has evolved and diversified over time, reflecting the linguistic and cultural diversity of the country. India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages, each with its own script or variation of a script. Some of the major scripts used in India today are Devanagari, Bengali, Gujarati, Gurmukhi, Kannada, Malayalam, Oriya,

Tamil, Telugu, and Urdu.

- Writing technology in India has also been influenced by modern developments, such as printing, typewriting, computing, and the internet. Printing technology was introduced in India by the Portuguese missionaries in the 16th century, and later by the British colonizers in the 18th century. Printing technology enabled the mass production and dissemination of written texts, such as books, newspapers, magazines, and pamphlets. Typewriting technology was introduced in India in the late 19th century, and enabled the faster and more efficient creation of written documents, such as letters, reports, and contracts. Computing technology was introduced in India in the mid-20th century, and enabled the digital processing and storage of written information, such as data, programs, and files. The internet technology was introduced in India in the late 20th century, and enabled the global and interactive communication and exchange of written information, such as emails, websites, blogs, and social media.
- Writing technology in India has faced some challenges and opportunities, such as standardization, transliteration, and innovation. Standardization is the process of creating and enforcing uniform rules and norms for writing systems, such as orthography, grammar, and punctuation. Standardization can facilitate the readability, accuracy, and compatibility of written texts, but it can also limit the diversity, creativity, and expression of writers. Transliteration is the process of converting written texts from one writing system to another, such as from Devanagari to Roman. Transliteration can facilitate the accessibility, convenience, and integration of written texts, but it can also cause the loss, distortion, and confusion of linguistic and cultural features. Innovation is the process of creating and adopting new tools and methods for writing systems, such as fonts, keyboards, and software. Innovation can facilitate the functionality, aesthetics, and efficiency of written texts, but it can also cause the obsolescence, redundancy, and complexity of existing tools and methods.

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- Pyrotechnics is the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or ceremonial purposes.
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings .
- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that he witnessed “a most wonderful firework display” at the king’s palace.
- Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa. He described various types of fireworks such as rockets, fountains, wheels, and crackers.

- Gunpowder, an essential ingredient of fire crackers, was unknown in ancient India. It was introduced by the Arabs and the Mongols in the 13th and 14th centuries. The Indian pyrotechnicians experimented with different proportions of saltpeter, sulfur and charcoal to create different effects.
- The use of fireworks in India became more popular and widespread after the Mughal invasion in the 16th century. The Mughal emperors and nobles patronized the pyrotechnic art and organized lavish displays on occasions such as coronations, weddings, birthdays, and festivals.
- The British colonial rule in India also influenced the pyrotechnic industry. The British introduced new types of fireworks such as Roman candles, Catherine wheels, and sparklers. They also regulated the manufacture and sale of fireworks and imposed taxes and licenses on them.
- The modern Indian pyrotechnic industry is mainly concentrated in the town of Sivakasi in Tamil Nadu, which produces about 90% of the country's fireworks. The industry employs about 250,000 people and generates an annual revenue of about Rs. 20 billion. The industry faces challenges such as environmental pollution, safety hazards, and competition from China.

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade and commerce were important aspects of ancient Indian civilization. India had a rich and diverse economy that produced various goods and services, and engaged in both domestic and foreign trade .
- India was known for its production and export of spices, textiles, metals, gems, ivory, pearls, and other luxury items. India also imported goods such as gold, silver, wine, silk, coral, and horses from other regions .
- India had a well-developed network of trade routes that connected it with different parts of Asia, Africa, and Europe. Some of the major trade routes were:
 - The land routes that linked India with Central Asia, China, Persia, and the Roman Empire. These routes passed through the Himalayan passes, the Khyber Pass, the Bolan Pass, and the Indus Valley .
 - The sea routes that connected India with Southeast Asia, China, Arabia, Africa, and the Mediterranean. These routes used the Indian Ocean, the Arabian Sea, the Bay of Bengal, and the Red Sea as waterways. The ports of Lothal, Bharuch, Broach, Kalyan, Muziris, Arikamedu, Tamralipti, and Kaveripattinam were some of the important maritime centers of ancient India .
- Trade and commerce in ancient India were regulated by various laws, customs, and institutions. Some of the sources that provide information on these aspects are:
 - The Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft, economics, and administration, written by Kautilya, a minister of the Mauryan Empire. The Arthashastra contains detailed rules and regulations for trade, taxation, weights and measures, quality control, guilds, contracts, and

- other commercial matters .
- The Manusmriti, a code of law and ethics, attributed to Manu, a legendary sage and lawgiver. The Manusmriti prescribes the duties and rights of different classes of people, including traders and merchants. It also deals with issues such as interest, loans, debts, partnerships, and inheritance.
- The inscriptions, coins, seals, and pottery of various ancient Indian kingdoms and dynasties. These sources provide evidence of the trade relations, economic activities, and monetary systems of ancient India .
- Trade and commerce in ancient India had a significant impact on the society, culture, and religion of the region. Some of the effects were:
 - The development of urban centers, such as Pataliputra, Ujjain, Taxila, Mathura, and Varanasi, that served as hubs of trade, administration, and learning .
 - The spread of Indian culture, art, literature, and religion to other parts of the world, such as Southeast Asia, China, and Central Asia, through trade and migration .
 - The emergence of new religious movements, such as Buddhism and Jainism, that challenged the orthodox Brahmanical system and appealed to the mercantile class and the masses .
 - The rise and fall of various political powers, such as the Mauryan Empire, the Kushan Empire, the Satavahana Empire, the Gupta Empire, and the Harsha Empire, that depended on trade and commerce for their prosperity and expansion .

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- Pre-colonial India refers to the period before the British occupation of India, which started in 1757 with the Battle of Plassey and ended in 1947 with the Partition of India into two dominions, India and Pakistan.
- Ancient India refers to the period from the earliest human settlements in the Indus Valley Civilization (around 2500 BCE) to the end of the Gupta Empire (around 550 CE), which is considered the golden age of Indian culture, science, and art.
- Some of the main features of India's dominance up to pre-colonial times and ancient India are:
 - India was a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and ethnicities, which coexisted and interacted with each other. Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism were some of the major religions that originated and flourished in India, along with other faiths such as Zoroastrianism, Judaism, Christianity, and Islam, which arrived from outside.
 - India was also a land of empires, kingdoms, and dynasties, which

- rose and fell over the centuries, leaving behind a rich legacy of architecture, literature, philosophy, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and law. Some of the notable empires and kingdoms that ruled over parts or whole of India were the Mauryan Empire, the Kushan Empire, the Satavahana Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Chola Empire, the Pala Empire, the Rashtrakuta Empire, the Delhi Sultanate, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Mughal Empire, and the Maratha Empire.
- India was a major hub of trade, commerce, and cultural exchange, connecting the East and the West through the Silk Road, the Indian Ocean, and the Arabian Sea. India exported spices, textiles, gems, metals, and other goods to various regions such as China, Southeast Asia, Central Asia, Persia, Arabia, Africa, and Europe, and imported silk, porcelain, horses, gold, and other commodities. India also influenced and was influenced by the civilizations and cultures of these regions, especially in terms of art, religion, language, and technology.
 - India was a center of learning and innovation, producing some of the greatest scholars, scientists, artists, and thinkers of the ancient and medieval world. Some of the famous names that contributed to the fields of mathematics, astronomy, medicine, grammar, logic, ethics, and aesthetics were Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Charaka, Sushruta, Panini, Patanjali, Nagarjuna, Kanada, Gautama, Bharata, and Kalidasa. India also developed some of the oldest and most influential schools of thought, such as the six orthodox schools of Hindu philosophy, the four schools of Buddhist philosophy, the Jain philosophy, and the Charvaka philosophy.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations.
- Cultural heritage includes tangible culture (such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art, and artifacts), intangible culture (such as folklore, traditions, language, and knowledge), and natural heritage (such as culturally significant landscapes, and biodiversity).
- Performing arts are forms of art that use the body, voice, or objects to convey artistic expression, such as music, dance, theatre, opera, and circus arts.
- Performing arts are often performed in front of a live audience, but may also be recorded or broadcasted.
- Performing arts can be classified into various genres, such as classical, folk, popular, experimental, and hybrid.
- Performing arts can also be influenced by the cultural and historical context of the performers and the audience, as well as by the social and political issues of the time.
- Some examples of performing arts are:

- Music: the art of creating and performing sounds, usually with instruments or vocals, that express emotions, ideas, or stories.
- Dance: the art of moving the body in a rhythmic and expressive way, usually with music, that communicates emotions, ideas, or stories.
- Theatre: the art of staging a dramatic performance, usually with actors, dialogue, costumes, and scenery, that tells a story or conveys a message.
- Opera: the art of combining music, drama, and spectacle, usually with singers, orchestra, chorus, and stage design, that tells a story or conveys a message.
- Circus arts: the art of performing feats of physical skill, agility, and daring, usually with acrobats, clowns, animals, and props, that entertain and amaze the audience.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

- Indian architecture is as old as the history of the civilization and reflects the diversity of its culture, geography, and religion.
- The earliest remains of recognizable building activity in India date back to the Indus Valley cities, which used corbel arches, brick masonry, and urban planning .
- The Mauryan period (4th-2nd century BCE) marked a high watermark in architectural achievements, with stupas, caves, and residential buildings made of stone and wood.
- The post-Mauryan period (2nd century BCE-3rd century CE) saw the development of rock-cut architecture, especially the chaityas (prayer halls) and viharas (monasteries) of Buddhism, carved out of hillsides and decorated with sculptures and paintings .
- The Gupta period (4th-6th century CE) is considered the golden age of Indian art and architecture, with the emergence of the Nagara style of temple architecture, characterized by a curvilinear spire, a square sanctum, and an elaborate entrance .
- The medieval period (7th-13th century CE) witnessed the regional variations of temple architecture, such as the Dravida style of South India, with a pyramidal tower, a rectangular hall, and a pillared porch; the Vesara style of Deccan, with a hybrid of Nagara and Dravida features; and the Kalinga style of Orissa, with a soaring spire, a jagamohana (assembly hall), and a natamandira (dance hall) .
- The Islamic influence on Indian architecture began with the Delhi Sultanate (13th-16th century CE), which introduced the use of arches, domes, minarets, and geometric patterns, as well as the construction of mosques, tombs, forts, and palaces .
- The Mughal period (16th-18th century CE) is regarded as the zenith of Indo-Islamic architecture, with the fusion of Persian, Turkish, and Indian elements, as well as the incorporation of gardens, water features, and calligraphy, as seen in the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, the Jama Masjid, and

the Humayun's Tomb .

- The colonial period (18th-20th century CE) introduced the European styles of architecture, such as Gothic, Victorian, and Neoclassical, as well as the Indo-Saracenic style, which combined Islamic and Hindu motifs with Gothic and Neo-Classical elements, as exemplified by the Victoria Terminus, the Gateway of India, and the Rashtrapati Bhavan .
- The modern period (20th-21st century CE) saw the emergence of new trends and movements in Indian architecture, such as the Bengal School, which revived the traditional forms and techniques; the Modernist School, which adopted the principles of functionalism, rationalism, and internationalism; and the Contemporary School, which experimented with new materials, technologies, and forms, as well as addressing the issues of sustainability, social justice, and cultural identity. Some of the prominent architects of this period are Rabindranath Tagore, Charles Correa, Le Corbusier, B.V. Doshi, Raj Rewal, and Laurie Baker.

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

- India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage that reflects its history, culture, and religion.
- Indian architecture can be classified into several styles and traditions, such as Hindu temple architecture, Indo-Islamic architecture, South Indian architecture, and Indo-Saracenic architecture.
- Some of the engineering marvels in Indian architecture include the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Brihadeeswarar Temple, the Konark Sun Temple, the Hampi monuments, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Sanchi Stupa, the Jantar Mantar, the Iron Pillar of Delhi, and the Rani ki Vav.
- Indian architecture also demonstrates the influence of various cultural and regional factors, such as the cave and rock-cut architecture of the pre-historic era, the Buddhist stupas and viharas, the Indo-Greek and Indo-Persian styles, the colonial and post-colonial styles, and the modern and contemporary styles.
- Indian architecture faces the challenge of preserving its authenticity and integrity in the face of rapid urbanization, globalization, and environmental degradation.
- Indian architecture also offers opportunities for innovation, creativity, and sustainability, by drawing inspiration from its ancient wisdom, traditional techniques, and local materials.

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

Sculptures are one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India. They reflect the rich cultural heritage of the country, as well as the religious and philosophical beliefs of its people. Sculptures can be found in various forms, such as stone, metal, wood, clay, ivory, and terracotta. They

can also be classified into different styles, such as the Indus Valley, Mauryan, Gandhara, Gupta, Pallava, Chola, Hoysala, and Mughal.

Some of the main features and examples of Indian sculptures are:

- The Indus Valley civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) produced some of the earliest sculptures in India, such as the bronze Dancing Girl from Mohenjodaro, the stone Priest-King from Harappa, and the terracotta figurines of animals and humans.
- The Mauryan empire (c. 322-185 BCE) is known for its monolithic pillars, which were erected by Emperor Ashoka to spread his message of Buddhism. The most famous of these is the Lion Capital at Sarnath, which has four lions facing the four cardinal directions and is the national emblem of India.
- The Gandhara school (c. 1st-5th century CE) was influenced by the Greco-Roman art and culture, and produced some of the earliest representations of Buddha in human form. The sculptures were made of gray schist or stucco, and showed realistic features, drapery, and expressions.
- The Gupta period (c. 4th-6th century CE) is considered the golden age of Indian art and culture, and witnessed the development of a classical style of sculpture. The sculptures were mostly made of stone or metal, and depicted Hindu and Buddhist deities, as well as scenes from mythology and literature. Some of the examples are the Sanchi Stupa, the Ajanta Caves, and the Udayagiri Caves.
- The Pallava dynasty (c. 6th-9th century CE) ruled over southern India and created some of the finest examples of rock-cut architecture and sculpture. The sculptures were carved out of granite or sandstone, and showed intricate details and dynamic poses. Some of the examples are the Mahabalipuram temples, the Kailasanatha temple, and the Varaha cave.
- The Chola dynasty (c. 9th-13th century CE) was one of the most powerful and prosperous kingdoms in India, and patronized a flourishing style of bronze sculpture. The sculptures were made using the lost-wax technique, and depicted Hindu gods and goddesses, especially Shiva and his consort Parvati. Some of the examples are the Nataraja (Lord of Dance), the Ardhanarishvara (half-male, half-female form of Shiva), and the Somaskanda (Shiva with Parvati and their son Skanda).
- The Hoysala empire (c. 10th-14th century CE) ruled over parts of Karnataka and Andhra Pradesh, and developed a distinctive style of sculpture. The sculptures were made of soapstone, which is a soft and easily carved material, and showed elaborate ornamentation and intricate patterns. Some of the examples are the Chennakeshava temple, the Hoysaleswara temple, and the Kesava temple.
- The Mughal empire (c. 16th-18th century CE) was one of the largest and most influential empires in the world, and brought a new style of Islamic art and architecture to India. The sculptures were mostly made of marble, and showed floral motifs, geometric designs, and calligraphy. Some of the examples are the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, and the Humayun's Tomb.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, or clay that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to make an impression on another surface, such as clay, wax, or paper.
- Seals are one of the most important sources of information about the ancient civilizations of India, especially the Indus Valley Civilization (IVC) that flourished from about 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- Seals of the IVC are mostly square or rectangular in shape, measuring about 2 to 3 cm on each side, and have an animal motif and a line of symbols on the upper side, and a knob or boss on the lower side.
- The animal motifs include bulls, elephants, rhinoceroses, tigers, buffaloes, unicorns, and mythical creatures. The symbols are believed to be part of a script that has not been deciphered yet.
- The seals were used for various purposes, such as identifying ownership, sealing goods and containers, authenticating documents, and as amulets or tokens of authority.
- The seals reflect the artistic, religious, and cultural aspects of the IVC. For example, the famous Pashupati seal depicts a horned figure surrounded by animals, which is interpreted as a representation of a deity or a ruler associated with nature and animals.
- The seals also show the trade and contact of the IVC with other regions, such as Mesopotamia, Central Asia, and Afghanistan, as some seals have been found in these places, and some seals have foreign motifs or inscriptions.
- The seals of the IVC are part of the cultural heritage of India, as they reveal the ancient history, society, and culture of the region, and demonstrate the creativity and skill of the people who made them.

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

- Coins are one of the most valuable sources of information about the history, culture, and economy of India. They reflect the political, religious, and artistic aspects of various dynasties and regions that ruled or influenced India over the centuries.
- The earliest coins of India date back to the Indus Valley Civilization (around 2500-1750 BCE), where cowry shells were used as a medium of exchange. Later, metal coins made of silver, copper, and gold were introduced by different kingdoms and empires, such as the Mauryans, the Kushans, the Guptas, the Cholas, the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughals, the Marathas, and the British.
- The coins of India display a rich variety of symbols, legends, scripts, and images that reveal the cultural diversity and heritage of the country. Some of the common motifs found on Indian coins are animals, plants, deities, kings, queens, inscriptions, and geometric patterns. Some of the rare and unique coins of India are the punch-marked coins, the bilingual coins, the

Indo-Greek coins, the Indo-Scythian coins, the Indo-Parthian coins, the Indo-Sassanian coins, the temple tokens, and the fanams.

- The coins of India also provide valuable information about the trade, commerce, and monetary systems of different periods and regions of India. They show the influence of foreign cultures, such as the Persians, the Greeks, the Romans, the Arabs, the Turks, the Mongols, the Portuguese, the Dutch, the French, and the English, on the Indian economy and society. They also indicate the changes in the weight, metal, and value of the coins over time, as well as the minting techniques and technologies used by different rulers and authorities.
- The coins of India are not only a source of historical and cultural knowledge, but also a source of artistic and aesthetic appreciation. They showcase the creativity, skill, and craftsmanship of the coin-makers and engravers, who produced some of the most beautiful and intricate designs and patterns on the coins. They also reflect the tastes, preferences, and styles of different eras and regions of India, as well as the personal and political messages of the issuers of the coins.
- The coins of India are a part of the rich and diverse cultural heritage of India, which deserves to be preserved, studied, and celebrated. They are a testimony to the glorious and complex history of India, and a reminder of the cultural diversity and unity of the country. They are also a source of inspiration and pride for the present and future generations of India.

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

Pottery is one of the oldest and most enduring forms of artistic expression in India. It reflects the cultural diversity, historical continuity and aesthetic richness of the Indian subcontinent. Some of the main points to understand the significance of pottery as a cultural heritage of India are:

- Pottery has a long history in India, dating back to the Neolithic period, when the first evidence of pottery has been found in the early settlements of Lahuradewa and Mehrgarh . Pottery was also a prominent feature of the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished from the 3rd to the 2nd millennium BCE, and produced sophisticated and diverse pottery forms, such as painted, perforated, incised and glazed wares .
- Pottery is a versatile medium that can be used for various purposes, such as storage, cooking, serving, ritual, decoration and communication. Pottery can also convey social, religious, political and economic messages, as well as personal and collective identities, through its shapes, designs, motifs, colours and techniques. Pottery can also reflect the influences of different cultures, regions, periods and styles, as well as the innovations and adaptations of the potters .
- Pottery is a living tradition that is still practiced extensively in India, especially in rural areas, where pottery is an integral part of the daily life and culture of the people. Pottery is also a source of livelihood for many

potters, who belong to various castes, communities and regions, and have their own distinctive styles and skills. Pottery is also a dynamic tradition that responds to the changing needs, tastes and demands of the society, as well as the challenges and opportunities of the market .

- Pottery is a valuable heritage that needs to be preserved and promoted, as it represents the rich and diverse cultural legacy of India. Pottery is also a medium of creative expression and aesthetic appreciation, as well as a symbol of harmony and unity in diversity. Pottery can also serve as a tool for education, research and documentation, as well as a source of inspiration and innovation for the future generations .

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Puppetry is an ancient and diverse art form that has been used for entertainment, education, cultural and religious dissemination in India.
- Puppetry is one of the richest heritages of India, with several regional genres that reflect the local history, culture, language, music and aesthetics .
- Some of the common traits of Indian puppetry are :
 - The use of epics, myths, legends and folktales as the main sources of stories and themes.
 - The incorporation of music, dance, dialogue and humour in the performance.
 - The involvement of the puppeteer as a narrator, singer, actor and manipulator of the puppets.
 - The interaction of the puppeteer and the puppets with the audience, often breaking the fourth wall.
 - The adaptation of the puppetry style to suit the local context, such as the materials, techniques, costumes, colours and motifs of the puppets.
- Some of the major types of Indian puppetry are :
 - String puppets, which are controlled by strings attached to various parts of the puppet's body. Examples are Kathputli of Rajasthan, Kundhei of Odisha, Gombeyatta of Karnataka and Bommalattam of Tamil Nadu.
 - Shadow puppets, which are flat figures made of leather or paper that are projected on a screen by a light source. Examples are Tholu Bommalata of Andhra Pradesh, Togalu Gombeyatta of Karnataka, Ravanachhaya of Odisha and Tolpava Koothu of Kerala.
 - Rod puppets, which are manipulated by rods attached to the puppet's limbs or head. Examples are Putul Nautch of West Bengal, Yampuri of Bihar and Sakhi Kundhei of Odisha.
 - Glove puppets, which are worn on the puppeteer's hands and fingers. Examples are Pavakoothu of Kerala, Chamadyache Bahulya of Maharashtra and Gopalila of Uttar Pradesh.
- Indian puppetry has also evolved with the changing times and has em-

braced contemporary themes, techniques and media, such as social issues, environmental awareness, digital technology and television .

- Indian puppetry is a valuable cultural heritage that showcases the diversity, creativity and ingenuity of the Indian people. It is also a medium of expression, communication and education that can appeal to a wide range of audiences.

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity and richness of its history, religion, and art.
- Dance in India can be classified into two broad categories: classical and folk. Classical dances are based on ancient texts and follow strict rules of technique, expression, and aesthetics. Folk dances are more spontaneous and regional, reflecting the local customs, beliefs, and lifestyles of the people.
- There are eight recognized classical dances in India: Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kathakali, Kuchipudi, Manipuri, Mohiniyattam, Odissi, and Sattriya. Each of these dances has its own origin, style, and repertoire, but they all share some common elements, such as the use of hand gestures (mudras), facial expressions (abhinaya), and rhythmic patterns (tala).
- Bharatanatyam is one of the oldest and most popular classical dances of India, originating from the temples of Tamil Nadu. It is characterized by graceful movements, intricate footwork, and sculpturesque poses. It depicts the stories of Hindu gods and goddesses, especially Shiva and Parvati .
- Kathak is a classical dance of North India, influenced by the Mughal and Persian cultures. It is known for its fast spins, complex footwork, and expressive storytelling. It can be performed solo or in groups, with or without musical accompaniment. It often portrays the love stories of Radha and Krishna.
- Kathakali is a classical dance-drama of Kerala, famous for its elaborate costumes, makeup, and masks. It is a highly stylized and dramatic form of dance, where the performers use exaggerated gestures, eye movements, and facial expressions to convey the emotions and actions of the characters. It is based on the epics of Ramayana and Mahabharata.
- Kuchipudi is a classical dance of Andhra Pradesh, derived from the ancient Sanskrit drama tradition. It is a blend of dance, music, and acting, where the performers enact various roles and scenes from Hindu mythology. It is known for its graceful and fluid movements, as well as its acrobatic and theatrical elements, such as balancing on the rim of a brass plate or dancing on a moving chariot.
- Manipuri is a classical dance of Manipur, a northeastern state of India. It is influenced by the Vaishnava tradition of Hinduism, and mainly depicts the love and devotion of Radha and Krishna. It is a soft and lyrical dance,

where the performers use delicate gestures, circular movements, and subtle expressions. It is often accompanied by drums, cymbals, and flutes.

- Mohiniyattam is a classical dance of Kerala, meaning “the dance of the enchantress”. It is a feminine and graceful dance, where the performer uses elegant movements, swaying curves, and expressive eyes to charm the audience. It is based on the theme of love and devotion, and often portrays the stories of Vishnu and his female avatar, Mohini.
- Odissi is a classical dance of Odisha, a coastal state of India. It is one of the oldest surviving dance forms of India, dating back to the 2nd century BCE. It is a highly refined and sophisticated dance, where the performer uses intricate hand gestures, footwork, and body postures to create various geometric shapes and patterns. It is inspired by the sculptures and paintings of the temples of Odisha, and depicts the themes of love, devotion, and beauty.
- Sattriya is a classical dance of Assam, a northeastern state of India. It is a relatively new form of dance, recognized as a classical dance only in 2000. It is a dance-drama tradition, developed by the 15th century saint and reformer, Sankaradeva, as a way of propagating the Vaishnava faith. It is performed by both male and female dancers, who wear colorful costumes and ornaments. It is based on the stories of Ramayana, Mahabharata, and Bhagavata Purana.
- Dance is a vital part of the cultural heritage of India, as it reflects the values, beliefs, and aesthetics of its people. It is also a medium of expression, communication, and education, as it conveys the messages and teachings of the ancient scriptures and legends. Dance is a living and

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

- Music is an integral part of the cultural heritage of India. It reflects the diversity, history and spirituality of the Indian people.
- Music of India can be broadly classified into two main traditions: Indian classical music and Indian folk music. Both traditions have regional variations and subgenres.
- Indian classical music is based on the concepts of raga (melodic framework) and tala (rhythmic cycle). It is performed by soloists or small ensembles, using vocal or instrumental techniques. There are two major styles of Indian classical music: Carnatic music, which originated in South India, and Hindustani music, which originated in North India.
- Indian folk music is the music of the common people, often associated with specific regions, communities, festivals, rituals or occupations. It is usually sung in local languages or dialects, and accompanied by simple instruments such as drums, flutes, stringed instruments or cymbals. Some examples of Indian folk music are Bhangra, Baul, Dandiya, Lavani and Qawwali.
- Music of India has also been influenced by various external cultures and genres, such as Persian, Arabic, Turkish, Central Asian, European and

American music. These influences have resulted in the emergence of new forms of music, such as Indian pop, rock, jazz, fusion, filmi and devotional music.

- Music of India is a rich and diverse expression of the Indian identity, culture and heritage. It is a source of inspiration, joy, and spiritual upliftment for millions of people. It is also a valuable contribution to the global musical heritage.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- Theatre is a composite art form that combines music, dance, drama, and other elements to create a live performance that communicates with the audience.
- Theatre in India has a long and rich history that dates back to the Vedic period, when religious rituals and hymns were performed as a form of worship and entertainment.
- Theatre in India is influenced by various cultural, linguistic, religious, and regional factors, and has developed into various forms and genres over time.
- Some of the classical forms of theatre in India are based on the *Natya Shashtra*, an ancient treatise on theatre art written by Bharata Muni around 500 BCE. The *Natya Shashtra* lays down the principles and techniques of theatre, such as the types of plays, the structure of the plot, the modes of expression, the styles of acting, the use of gestures, costumes, makeup, music, and stagecraft.
- Some of the classical forms of theatre in India are Kutiyattam, Sanskrit theatre from Kerala, which is recognized by UNESCO as a masterpiece of the oral and intangible heritage of humanity; Bharatanatyam, a dance-drama from Tamil Nadu; Kathakali, a stylized dance-drama from Kerala; Kuchipudi, a dance-drama from Andhra Pradesh; and Yakshagana, a folk theatre from Karnataka.
- Some of the traditional forms of theatre in India are based on the regional folk cultures and traditions, and often incorporate elements of mythology, history, social issues, and satire. Some of the traditional forms of theatre in India are Nautanki, a musical theatre from Uttar Pradesh; Tamasha, a folk theatre from Maharashtra; Jatra, a travelling theatre from Bengal; Bhaona, a religious theatre from Assam; and Bhand Pather, a satirical theatre from Kashmir.
- Some of the modern forms of theatre in India are influenced by the Western theatre, and often deal with contemporary themes, issues, and styles. Some of the modern forms of theatre in India are Parsi theatre, a commercial theatre that emerged in the 19th century and introduced elements of realism, comedy, and melodrama; Indian People's Theatre Association (IPTA), a progressive theatre movement that started in the 1940s and focused on social and political issues; and Indian English theatre, a theatre that uses English as the medium of expression and explores various

aspects of Indian identity, culture, and society.

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Drama is a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilisation of dialogue, music, gesture, dance, and sound.
- Drama in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient Vedic period, when it was used as a medium of religious and social communication.
- The earliest surviving form of drama in India is the classical Sanskrit theatre, which was codified by Bharata in his treatise *Natyashastra*, considered to be the father of Indian drama.
- Sanskrit drama flourished from the 2nd century BCE to the 10th century CE, producing masterpieces such as Kalidasa's *Shakuntala*, Bhasa's *Swapnavasavadatta*, and Shudraka's *Mricchakatika*.
- Sanskrit drama was highly stylized and sophisticated, following strict rules of structure, language, and performance. It was also influenced by various Indian aesthetic theories, such as *rasa* (emotion), *alamkara* (ornamentation), and *dhvani* (suggestion).
- Sanskrit drama was performed on a simple stage, with minimal props and scenery, relying on the actors' skill and the audience's imagination. The actors wore elaborate costumes and masks, and used gestures and facial expressions to convey emotions and meanings.
- Sanskrit drama was accompanied by music and dance, which were integral parts of the theatrical experience. The music was based on the Indian classical system, and the dance was derived from the *Natyashastra*, which described various types of movements, postures, and expressions.
- Sanskrit drama was not only a form of entertainment, but also a means of education and moral instruction. It dealt with various themes, such as love, heroism, ethics, politics, and spirituality, and often drew inspiration from the Indian epics, such as the *Ramayana* and the *Mahabharata*.
- Sanskrit drama declined after the 10th century CE, due to various factors, such as the Islamic invasions, the rise of regional languages, and the loss of patronage. However, it left a lasting legacy on the Indian culture and literature, and influenced the development of various forms of drama in different regions and languages of India.
- Some of the regional forms of drama that emerged in India are:
 - Prakrit drama: A form of drama that used Prakrit languages, such as Pali, Ardhamagadhi, and Sauraseni, instead of Sanskrit. It was popular in the Buddhist and Jain communities, and often depicted the lives and teachings of their religious figures. Examples

- of Prakrit drama are Ashvaghosha's Buddhacharita, Haribhadra's Jambudvipasamgraha, and Vidyakara's Subhashitaratnakosha.
- Folk drama: A form of drama that used local languages, dialects, and idioms, and incorporated elements of folk music, dance, and rituals. It was performed by various communities and castes, and reflected their social and cultural realities. Examples of folk drama are Tamasha in Maharashtra, Nautanki in Uttar Pradesh, Jatra in Bengal, Bhavai in Gujarat, and Yakshagana in Karnataka.
- Modern drama: A form of drama that emerged in the 19th and 20th centuries, influenced by the Western theatre and the Indian social and political movements. It used various Indian languages, such as Hindi, Marathi, Bengali, and Urdu, and experimented with various styles, genres, and themes. Examples of modern drama are Rabindranath Tagore's Chitrangada, Mohan Rakesh's Ashadh Ka Ek Din, Vijay Tendulkar's Ghashiram Kotwal, and Girish Karnad's Tughlaq.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of art in India, dating back to prehistoric times.
- Painting reflects the cultural, religious and political aspects of Indian society, as well as the aesthetic and creative expressions of the artists.
- Painting is also a living cultural heritage, as many traditional styles and techniques are still practiced and preserved by various communities and regions in India.
- Some of the major types of Indian paintings are:
 - **Madhubani painting:** A folk art form from the Mithila region of Bihar and Nepal, characterized by intricate patterns, geometric shapes, floral motifs, and symbolic images of gods, goddesses, animals and nature. Madhubani painting is done with natural colors and brushes made from bamboo sticks, cotton or fingers. It is usually done on walls, floors, cloth, paper or canvas. Madhubani painting is a part of the ritual and social life of the people, and also a source of income and empowerment for many women artists.
 - **Warli painting:** A tribal art form from the Warli community of Maharashtra, Gujarat and parts of Madhya Pradesh, known for its simple and minimalistic style. Warli painting depicts the daily life, festivals, rituals, and beliefs of the Warli people, using white paint made from rice paste on a red or brown background. Warli painting is done on walls, pots, cloth, paper or canvas, using a bamboo stick as a brush. Warli painting is a form of visual storytelling and communication, and also a way of preserving the Warli culture and identity.

- **Mughal painting:** A style of miniature painting that flourished under the patronage of the Mughal emperors from the 16th to the 19th century. Mughal painting is influenced by Persian, Indian and European art, and depicts the courtly life, history, legends, portraits, landscapes, flora and fauna of the Mughal era. Mughal painting is done with fine brushes and rich colors on paper, silk, ivory or leather. Mughal painting is a testament to the artistic excellence and cultural diversity of the Mughal period.
- **Rajput painting:** A style of miniature painting that developed in the Rajput kingdoms of Rajasthan, Himachal Pradesh, Jammu and Kashmir, and parts of Punjab and Gujarat from the 16th to the 19th century. Rajput painting is influenced by Mughal, Persian, Indian and European art, and depicts the religious, literary, romantic, and heroic themes of the Rajput culture. Rajput painting is done with fine brushes and bright colors on paper, cloth, wood or ivory. Rajput painting is a reflection of the royal and spiritual aspirations of the Rajput rulers and their subjects.
- **Tanjore painting:** A classical art form from the Tanjore or Thanjavur region of Tamil Nadu, dating back to the 16th century. Tanjore painting is characterized by its rich and vibrant colors, gold foil, gems, and relief work, creating a three-dimensional effect. Tanjore painting depicts the Hindu gods and goddesses, saints, and scenes from the epics and puranas. Tanjore painting is done on a wooden plank, coated with a layer of cloth, chalk powder, and a binding medium, and then painted with natural or synthetic colors. Tanjore painting is a form of devotional art and a symbol of prosperity and auspiciousness.
- **Bengal school of art:** A modern art movement that emerged in Bengal, especially Kolkata and Shantiniketan, in the late 19th and early 20th century. Bengal school of art is influenced by Indian, Asian and European art, and aims to revive the indigenous and spiritual aspects of Indian art. Bengal school of art depicts the themes of nationalism, social reform, rural life, nature, and mythology, using soft and subdued colors, wash techniques, and lyrical expressions. Bengal school of art is a pioneer of the Indian renaissance and the nationalist movement in art.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.
- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts, dating back to the

Vedic period and influenced by the geography, culture, and history of the subcontinent.

- Some of the most famous martial arts in India are:
 - **Kalaripayattu:** Often known as the ‘Mother Of All Martial Arts’, this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry, and healing methods.
 - **Silambam:** A traditional Tamil martial art that uses a long bamboo staff as the main weapon, along with other weapons such as swords, daggers, and spears. It is known for its fluid and circular movements, and its use of footwork and acrobatics.
 - **Thang-Ta:** The ancient Manipuri martial art, also known as Huyen Lallong, that uses swords and spears as the main weapons, along with shields, axes, and daggers. It is a powerful yet gracefully complex technique that involves strikes, blocks, jumps, and spins.
 - **Gatka:** A Sikh martial art that originated in Punjab and was used by the Khalsa army in the 18th and 19th centuries. It uses wooden sticks to simulate swords, along with other weapons such as daggers, axes, and chakrams. It is characterized by swift and agile movements, and a high degree of coordination and discipline.
 - **Kushti:** One of the most popular martial arts in India, also known as Pehlwani or traditional wrestling. It started off during the Mughal times where Malla Yuddha, a local sport was combined with a Persian sport named Varzesh-e-Bastani. It involves grappling, throws, locks, and pins, and is practised on a clay or dirt pit.
 - **Lathi:** India’s oldest armed martial art, also regarded as one of the world’s earliest martial arts weapons. It uses a long wooden stick, usually with a metal tip, to strike, block, and defend against opponents. It is widely practised in rural areas, especially in Bihar, Uttar Pradesh, and West Bengal.

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, commemorate historical events, honour deities, express gratitude, showcase arts and crafts, and promote unity and harmony among people.
- Fairs and festivals are an integral part of the Indian cultural heritage, as they reflect the rich and varied aspects of the Indian society, such as its beliefs, values, customs, rituals, folklore, music, dance, cuisine, costumes, etc. They also provide an opportunity for people to interact, exchange, learn, enjoy and celebrate together, transcending the barriers of caste,

creed, region and religion.

- Some of the major fairs and festivals that are celebrated in India are:
 - **Makar Sankranti:** It is a harvest festival celebrated in mid-January, when the sun enters the zodiac sign of Capricorn. It is also known as Pongal, Lohri, Bihu, Khichdi, etc. in different parts of the country. It is a time to thank the sun god for the bountiful crops and to fly kites, light bonfires, cook special dishes, and distribute sweets and gifts.
 - **Holi:** It is the festival of colours, celebrated in late February or early March, to mark the arrival of spring and the victory of good over evil. It is a time to play with colours, water, and flowers, and to enjoy music, dance, and delicacies. It is also a time to forgive and forget, and to spread joy and love.
 - **Diwali:** It is the festival of lights, celebrated in late October or early November, to mark the return of Lord Rama from exile and the triumph of light over darkness. It is a time to decorate homes and streets with lamps, candles, and rangoli, and to worship Goddess Lakshmi, the goddess of wealth and prosperity. It is also a time to exchange greetings, gifts, and sweets, and to enjoy fireworks and crackers.
 - **Dussehra:** It is the festival of victory, celebrated in late September or early October, to commemorate the defeat of the demon king Ravana by Lord Rama. It is a time to watch the dramatic re-enactment of the epic Ramayana, and to burn the effigies of Ravana, Kumbhakarna, and Meghnad. It is also a time to worship Goddess Durga, the goddess of power and courage, and to celebrate her victory over the buffalo demon Mahishasura.
 - **Ganesh Chaturthi:** It is the festival of the elephant-headed god, celebrated in late August or early September, to mark his birthday. It is a time to install and worship the idols of Lord Ganesh, the god of wisdom and success, and to immerse them in water after a few days. It is also a time to chant his names, sing his praises, and enjoy his favourite sweets, such as modak and laddoo.
 - **Eid-ul-Fitr:** It is the festival of breaking the fast, celebrated at the end of the holy month of Ramadan, when Muslims abstain from food and drink from dawn to dusk. It is a time to offer prayers, thank Allah, and celebrate the completion of the fasting period. It is also a time to wear new clothes, visit relatives and friends, and share delicacies, such as biryani, seviyan, and sheer khurma.
 - **Eid-ul-Adha:** It is the festival of sacrifice, celebrated in late July or early August, to commemorate the willingness of Prophet Ibrahim to sacrifice his son Ismail for Allah. It is a time to offer prayers, praise Allah, and sacrifice an animal, such as a goat, sheep, or camel. It is also a time to distribute the meat among the poor, the relatives, and the friends, and to enjoy feasts and festivities.

- **Christmas:** It is the festival of the birth of Jesus Christ, celebrated on 25th December, by Christians and non-Christians alike. It is a time to decorate homes and churches with stars, bells, candles, and mistletoe, and to set up and adorn the Christmas tree and the crib. It is also a time to attend the midnight mass, sing carols

Current developments in Arts and Cultural in India

- India has a rich and diverse cultural heritage that includes various forms of art, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings and writings. These are collectively known as the ‘Intangible Cultural Heritage’ (ICH) of humanity.
- India has 37 world heritage sites that showcase the architectural and artistic excellence of the past civilizations. Some of these sites are the Taj Mahal, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Hampi ruins, and the Mahabodhi temple.
- India also has a vibrant contemporary art scene that reflects the social and political realities of the country. Some of the prominent Indian artists who are shaping contemporary art are Subodh Gupta, Bharti Kher, Nalini Malani, Anish Kapoor, Jitish Kallat, and Shilpa Gupta.
- India hosts various cultural festivals and events that celebrate the diversity and creativity of the people. Some of these are the Indian Art Fair, the Kochi Biennale, the Jaipur Literature Festival, the Kumbh Mela, the Durga Puja, and the Hornbill Festival .
- India is also developing its cultural infrastructure and institutions to promote and preserve its art and culture. Some of the initiatives are the Kiran Nadar Museum of Art, the Museum of Art and Photography, the Gujral Foundation, the National Museum of Customs and GST, and the Devayatanam project .
- India is also participating in the global network of learning cities, which aims to foster lifelong learning and sustainable development. Three Indian cities, Thrissur, Nilambur, and Warangal, have joined the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities in 2021.
- India is also nominating some of its cultural sites and monuments for inscription in the World Heritage List. In 2021, India nominated the Hoysala temples of Karnataka, which are known for their intricate carvings and sculptures, for the World Heritage List.
- India is also recovering some of its stolen or lost cultural artefacts from abroad. In 2021, India got back a 10th-century goat-headed yogini statue from France, which was smuggled out of the country in 1990.

Indian’s Cultural Contribution to the World

India is a country of diverse and rich cultural heritage, with a history that spans thousands of years. India has made many contributions to the world in various fields, such as mathematics, architecture, textiles, medicine, language, art, and

religion. Some of the notable contributions of India to the world are:

- **Mathematics:** India is the birthplace of the decimal system, the concept of zero, the use of negative numbers, algebra, trigonometry, and calculus. India also developed the concept of infinity, the value of pi, and the Fibonacci sequence.
- **Architecture:** India has a unique and diverse architectural style, influenced by various cultures and religions. India is home to many UNESCO World Heritage Sites, such as the Taj Mahal, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Hampi ruins, and the Mahabodhi temple. India also pioneered the use of iron pillars, domes, arches, and vaults in construction.
- **Textiles:** India is one of the largest producers and exporters of cotton, silk, and woolen fabrics in the world. India invented the art of spinning, weaving, dyeing, printing, and embroidering textiles. India also introduced the use of muslin, calico, chintz, and cashmere to the world.
- **Medicine:** India has a rich tradition of medicine, dating back to the ancient times. India developed the system of Ayurveda, which is based on the balance of the five elements and the three doshas in the body. India also performed the first plastic surgery, cataract surgery, and dental surgery in the world. India also discovered the use of various herbs, spices, and metals for healing purposes .
- **Language:** India has a linguistic diversity of over 1600 languages and dialects, belonging to four major language families: Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austroasiatic, and Tibeto-Burman. India is also the source of many languages that are spoken in other parts of the world, such as Sanskrit, Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Tamil, and Malayalam. India also influenced the development of many languages, such as English, Persian, Arabic, and Chinese, through trade, migration, and cultural exchange .
- **Art:** India has a rich and varied artistic heritage, ranging from painting, sculpture, pottery, metalwork, jewelry, to music, dance, theatre, and literature. India has produced many masterpieces of art, such as the Ajanta paintings, the Pala sculptures, the Tanjore paintings, the Mughal miniatures, the Madhubani paintings, the Raga music, the Bharatanatyam dance, the Kathakali theatre, and the Ramayana and Mahabharata epics .
- **Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India also has a significant population of followers of other religions, such as Islam, Christianity, Judaism, Zoroastrianism, and Baha'i. India has contributed many concepts and practices to the world's spiritual traditions, such as yoga, meditation, karma, reincarnation, ahimsa, dharma, and nirvana .

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is a form of storytelling that combines elements of literature, music, dance, drama, and visual arts. It is influenced by the ancient Indian

tradition of Natyasastra, which is a treatise on the theory and practice of performing arts.

- Indian cinema has a rich and diverse history that spans over a century. It began as a novelty in the late 19th century and gradually evolved into a popular medium of entertainment and expression in the 20th and 21st centuries. It reflects the socio-cultural and political realities of India, as well as its aspirations and dreams.
- Indian cinema has produced many genres and styles, such as social realism, melodrama, comedy, romance, musical, thriller, horror, fantasy, and animation. It has also experimented with various forms and techniques, such as parallel cinema, new wave cinema, art cinema, and documentary cinema. It has also been influenced by and influenced other cinemas of the world, such as Hollywood, European, and Asian cinemas.
- Indian cinema has been recognized as a performing art by various institutions and organizations, such as the Indian People's Theatre Association (IPTA), which was founded in 1943 as a cultural wing of the Communist Party of India. IPTA aimed to use theater and cinema as a tool for social change and awareness. Many prominent filmmakers, actors, writers, and musicians were associated with IPTA, such as KA Abbas, Ritwik Ghatak, Balraj Sahni, Utpal Dutt, and Salil Chowdhury.
- Indian cinema has also been celebrated as a performing art by various festivals and awards, both nationally and internationally. Some of the prestigious awards for Indian cinema are the National Film Awards, the Filmfare Awards, the Dadasaheb Phalke Award, and the Padma Shri and Padma Vibhushan awards. Some of the prominent festivals that showcase Indian cinema are the International Film Festival of India, the Mumbai Film Festival, the Kerala International Film Festival, and the Cannes Film Festival.
- Indian cinema as a performing art has a significant impact on the Indian society and culture, as well as the global audience. It has shaped the collective imagination, identity, and values of the Indian people. It has also contributed to the economic, educational, and artistic development of the country. It has also inspired and influenced many other forms of performing arts, such as theater, music, dance, and television.